

Indian Traditions, Culture and Society

India is a diverse and ancient country with a rich and varied heritage. India has been influenced by many cultures and civilizations over the centuries, and has also contributed to the world in various fields of art, philosophy, religion, science, and technology. India is home to more than 1.3 billion people, who speak hundreds of languages and dialects, and practice different faiths and customs. India is also known for its vibrant and colorful festivals, its delicious and diverse cuisine, its beautiful and intricate handicrafts, and its warm and hospitable people.

Some of the main aspects of Indian traditions, culture and society are:

- **Arts and Language:** India has a long and rich tradition of literature, poetry, music, dance, theater, and visual arts. India has produced many eminent writers, poets, musicians, dancers, actors, and artists, who have enriched the world with their creativity and talent. India has also developed many languages and scripts, such as Sanskrit, Hindi, Urdu, Tamil, Bengali, Gujarati, Marathi, Telugu, Kannada, Malayalam, and many others. India has 22 official languages and 12 classical languages, which reflect the diversity and complexity of its linguistic heritage.
- **Philosophy and Religion:** India is the birthplace of four major religions: Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, and Sikhism. India has also been influenced by other religions, such as Islam, Christianity, Zoroastrianism, Judaism, and Baha'i. India has a secular constitution that guarantees freedom of religion and equality of all citizens. India has also developed many schools of philosophy, such as Vedanta, Yoga, Nyaya, Mimamsa, Sankhya, and others, which have explored various aspects of metaphysics, ethics, logic, epistemology, and aesthetics.
- **Food and Drink:** India has a diverse and delicious cuisine, which varies from region to region and community to community. India has many types of dishes, such as curries, biryanis, kebabs, dosas, idlis, samosas, chaats, dhoklas, parathas, rotis, naans, and many others. India also has many types of sweets, such as laddoos, barfis, halwas, jalebis, rasgullas, kulfi, and many others. India also has many types of beverages, such as tea, coffee, lassi, buttermilk, sherbet, and many others. India also has many spices, herbs, and condiments, such as turmeric, cumin, coriander, cardamom, saffron, ginger, garlic, chili, mint, tamarind, and many others, which add flavor and aroma to the food.
- **Society and Culture:** India has a complex and diverse society, which is composed of many castes, classes, tribes, ethnic groups, and religious communities. India has a hierarchical and patriarchal social structure, which is influenced by the concepts of varna (social order), jati (birth group), and karma (action and consequence). India also has a strong and vibrant culture, which is expressed through various forms of art, literature, mu-

sis, dance, theater, cinema, and media. India also has many traditions, customs, and rituals, which are related to various aspects of life, such as birth, marriage, death, festivals, ceremonies, and celebrations .

Module 1- Society State and Polity in India

This module aims to provide an overview of the historical and contemporary aspects of the society, state and polity in India. It covers the following topics:

- The origins and evolution of the Indian civil polity, based on the principle of freedom and non-violence, as reflected in the ancient texts and traditions of India .
- The constitutional framework of India, which is a parliamentary secular democratic republic, with a federal system of government and a bicameral legislature.
- The major political parties and ideologies in India, and their role in shaping the electoral and policy outcomes in the country.
- The challenges and opportunities of India's foreign policy, which is based on the Five Principles of Peaceful Coexistence, and seeks to balance its national interests with its global responsibilities.
- The social and cultural diversity of India, which is home to various ethnic, linguistic, religious and regional groups, and the issues of identity, integration and conflict that arise from it.
- The processes of social change and modernization in India, and their impact on the everyday life of the people, the state and the society.

The module aims to enable the students to:

- Understand the historical and cultural roots of the Indian polity and society, and appreciate its uniqueness and diversity.
- Analyze the constitutional and institutional features of the Indian political system, and evaluate its strengths and weaknesses.
- Compare and contrast the different political parties and ideologies in India, and assess their influence on the governance and development of the country.
- Examine the various aspects of India's foreign policy, and its implications for the regional and global order.
- Identify the sources and manifestations of social and cultural diversity in India, and explore the ways of managing and resolving the conflicts and tensions that arise from it.
- Appreciate the dynamics of social change and modernization in India, and their effects on the state and the society.

State in Ancient India

- The state in ancient India was a social organization with political power that ensured peace, order and happiness.
- The origin of the state in ancient India is not clear, but there are three main theories: social contract theory, divine origin theory and organic theory.
- Social contract theory: This theory holds that the state was formed by a voluntary agreement among the people who gave up some of their rights and freedoms to a ruler or a group of rulers in exchange for protection and welfare.
- Divine origin theory: This theory holds that the state was created by God or gods who appointed a king or a dynasty to rule over the people with divine sanction and authority.
- Organic theory: This theory holds that the state was a natural and inevitable outcome of the growth and development of human society, which needed a central authority to regulate its affairs and maintain harmony.
- The types of states in ancient India were loosely categorized into monarchy, republic and oligarchy.
- Monarchy: This was the most prevalent type of state in ancient India, where a king or a queen ruled over a territory with the help of ministers, governors, officials and army. The king was the source of all power and derived his legitimacy from various sources, such as lineage, conquest, election, charisma or divine right. Some examples of monarchies in ancient India are the Mauryan Empire, the Gupta Empire, the Kushan Empire and the Chola Empire.
- Republic: This was a type of state where the people or their representatives had a say in the governance and administration of the state. The republics were usually formed by clans, tribes or guilds who elected their leaders or councils to manage their affairs. Some examples of republics in ancient India are the Vajji confederation, the Malla republic, the Shakya republic and the Licchavi republic.
- Oligarchy: This was a type of state where a few powerful individuals or groups dominated the state and its resources. The oligarchs were usually aristocrats, nobles, warriors or merchants who controlled the political and economic life of the state. Some examples of oligarchies in ancient India are the Nanda dynasty, the Shunga dynasty, the Satavahana dynasty and the Pallava dynasty.
- The earliest known state in ancient India was the Indus Valley Civilization, which flourished from 3300 BCE to 1300 BCE in the northwest of the subcontinent. It was a highly urbanized and sophisticated civilization that had a centralized administration, a standardized system of weights and measures, a seal carving industry, and a metallurgy with copper, bronze, lead and tin. It also had a complex social structure, a diverse religious culture, and a trade network that extended to Mesopotamia, Egypt and Central Asia. The decline and disappearance of this civilization is still a

mystery, but some possible causes are environmental changes, invasions, internal conflicts or cultural decay.

Theories of origin of State in India

The origin of state in India is a subject of debate among scholars of political science and history. There are different theories that attempt to explain how the state emerged and evolved in ancient India. Some of the prominent theories are:

- **Social Contract Theory:** This theory holds that the state was formed by a voluntary agreement among individuals who gave up some of their natural rights and freedoms in exchange for security and order. The state was seen as a human creation that served the common good of the people. This theory is found in some of the ancient Indian texts such as the Mahabharata, the Arthashastra, and the Manusmriti. According to this theory, the state was based on the consent of the governed and the rule of law .
- **Divine Origin Theory:** This theory maintains that the state was established by the will of God or some supernatural power. The state was seen as a sacred institution that derived its authority and legitimacy from the divine mandate. The king was considered as the representative or the incarnation of God on earth. This theory is also found in some of the ancient Indian texts such as the Vedas, the Ramayana, and the Puranas. According to this theory, the state was based on the obedience of the subjects and the duty of the king .
- **Organic Theory:** This theory suggests that the state was a natural and inevitable outcome of the social and historical development of human society. The state was seen as a living organism that grew and changed according to the needs and aspirations of the people. The state was also influenced by the geographical and cultural factors of the region. This theory is supported by some of the historical and archaeological evidence of the emergence and evolution of the state in ancient India. According to this theory, the state was based on the adaptation of the society and the environment .

These are some of the main theories of origin of state in India. However, none of these theories can fully explain the complexity and diversity of the state formation process in ancient India. The state in ancient India was not a monolithic or uniform entity, but a dynamic and heterogeneous phenomenon that varied across time and space. Therefore, it is important to study the state in ancient India from a multidisciplinary and comparative perspective.

Evolutionary Theory of origin of State

- The Evolutionary Theory of origin of State is the theory that explains the state as the product of historical and social evolution over a long period of time .
- According to this theory, the state is not a sudden or artificial creation, but a natural and gradual development of human society from simple to complex forms of organization .
- The Evolutionary Theory traces the origin of the state from the primitive stages of human society, such as the family, the clan, the tribe, the village, the city, and the nation, and shows how the state emerged as a result of various factors, such as population growth, economic needs, social differentiation, warfare, religion, and culture .
- The Evolutionary Theory is regarded as the most scientific and convincing theory of origin of the state, as it is based on historical evidence and anthropological research, and it accounts for the diversity and complexity of the state in different times and places .
- The Evolutionary Theory also helps to understand the functions and purposes of the state, as it shows the state to be a response to the changing needs and challenges of human society, and a means of achieving social order, justice, and progress .

Force Theory of Origin of State

- The force theory of origin of state is a theory that proposes that the state emerged from the use of force by one person or a small group of people over a larger population in a certain territory .
- According to this theory, the state is a result of war, conquest, or subjugation, and the ruler or the ruling class exercises absolute power over the subjects .
- The force theory of origin of state is based on the assumption that the strong have the right to dominate the weak, and that might makes right .
- The force theory of origin of state is criticized for being fallacious, unrealistic, and immoral, as it does not account for the consent, cooperation, or participation of the people in the formation of the state .
- The force theory of origin of state is historically important, as it reflects the reality of some of the ancient and modern states that were established by violence, such as the Roman Empire, the Mongol Empire, or Nazi Germany .

Mystical Theory of Origin of State

- The mystical theory of origin of state is also known as the **divine origin theory** or the **theory of divine right of kings** .
- The exponents of this theory believe that the state did not come into being by any effort of man, but by the **will of God** .
- According to this theory, the **king** or the **ruler** of the state is the **representative** or the **vicegerent** of God on earth .

- The king or the ruler has the **absolute authority** and the **infallible wisdom** to govern the state and the people .
- The people have the **duty** and the **obligation** to **obey** the king or the ruler without any question or resistance .
- The king or the ruler is **accountable** only to **God** and not to the people or any other human authority .
- The mystical theory of origin of state was used to **justify** the **monarchical** and **despotic** forms of government in ancient and medieval times .
- The mystical theory of origin of state was **challenged** and **rejected** by the **rationalist** and **democratic** thinkers of the modern era, who advocated the **social contract theory** and the **popular sovereignty** of the people .

Contract Theory of Origin of State

- The contract theory of origin of state is one of the theories that explains how the state or the society came into being by a voluntary agreement or contract between individuals or groups of people .
- The contract theory assumes that there was a state of nature before the state, where people lived in natural conditions without any law or authority. In the state of nature, people enjoyed complete freedom and equality, but also faced insecurity and violence due to the lack of order and protection .
- To overcome the problems of the state of nature, people decided to enter into a social contract, where they agreed to give up some of their natural rights and liberties in exchange for the benefits of living in a civil society under a common authority . The social contract established the state as the legitimate and sovereign power that could make and enforce laws for the common good of the people .
- The contract theory of origin of state has been developed and elaborated by different thinkers, such as Thomas Hobbes, John Locke, Jean-Jacques Rousseau, and Immanuel Kant, who had different views on the nature and terms of the social contract, the role and limits of the state, and the rights and duties of the citizens .
- The contract theory of origin of state has been influential and controversial in moral and political philosophy, as it provides a rational and normative basis for the state's authority and the people's consent, but also raises questions about the historical validity, moral legitimacy, and practical feasibility of the social contract .

Stages of State Formation in Ancient India

The state is a political institution that exercises sovereign power over a defined territory and population. The origin and evolution of the state in ancient India

is a complex and contested topic, as different sources and theories present different perspectives and interpretations. However, some general stages of state formation can be identified based on historical and archaeological evidence.

- The first stage of state formation in ancient India was the emergence of **chiefdoms** or **tribal polities** in the late Vedic period (c. 1000-600 BCE). These were small-scale, kin-based, and hierarchical societies that were organized around clans, lineages, and villages. They practiced pastoralism, agriculture, and trade, and had rudimentary forms of administration, law, and religion. Some examples of chiefdoms are the Kurus, Panchalas, Kosalas, and Videhas in northern India, and the Cholas, Cheras, and Pandyas in southern India .
- The second stage of state formation in ancient India was the rise of **janapadas** or **territorial states** in the mid-first millennium BCE. These were larger, more centralized, and more complex polities that expanded their territories through conquest, alliance, and colonization. They developed urban centers, coinage, taxation, bureaucracy, and military systems, and had diverse social classes, castes, and religious sects. Some examples of janapadas are the Magadha, Kosala, Vatsa, Avanti, and Gandhara in northern India, and the Satavahana, Chola, and Pallava in southern India .
- The third stage of state formation in ancient India was the formation of **empires** or **universal states** in the late first millennium BCE and early first millennium CE. These were vast, multi-ethnic, and multi-religious polities that claimed to rule over the whole of India or a large part of it. They had elaborate systems of administration, law, culture, and religion, and maintained diplomatic and trade relations with other regions and countries. Some examples of empires are the Mauryan, Kushan, Gupta, and Harsha in northern India, and the Chola, Rashtrakuta, and Vijayanagara in southern India .
- The fourth stage of state formation in ancient India was the fragmentation of **empires** and the emergence of **regional kingdoms** in the early medieval period (c. 600-1200 CE). These were smaller, more localized, and more diverse polities that competed and cooperated with each other for resources and influence. They had varying degrees of centralization, feudalism, and militarism, and developed distinctive styles of art, architecture, literature, and religion. Some examples of regional kingdoms are the Pratihara, Pala, Chalukya, and Chola in northern and southern India, and the Sena, Chahamana, Kalachuri, and Hoysala in eastern and western India .
- The fifth stage of state formation in ancient India was the invasion and establishment of **foreign dynasties** and the emergence of **sultanates** in the late medieval period (c. 1200-1500 CE). These were polities that were founded by invaders or migrants from Central Asia, Persia, or Arabia, who brought new political, cultural, and religious influences to India. They had centralized, absolutist, and Islamic forms of governance, and faced

resistance and assimilation from the native kingdoms and populations. Some examples of foreign dynasties and sultanates are the Ghaznavid, Ghurid, Delhi, Bengal, Bahmani, and Deccan in northern and southern India .

- The sixth stage of state formation in ancient India was the consolidation and expansion of the **Mughal Empire** and the emergence of **regional powers** in the early modern period (c. 1500-1700 CE). The Mughal Empire was the largest and most powerful state in Indian history, that ruled over most of India and parts of Central Asia and Afghanistan. It had a sophisticated system of administration, law, culture, and religion, and fostered a synthesis of Indo-Islamic and Indo-Persian traditions. The regional powers were polities that challenged or allied with the Mughal Empire, and had their own distinctive political, cultural, and religious identities. Some examples of regional powers

Kingship in States in Ancient India

- Kingship in ancient India was a **sovereignty over a territory** by a King who functioned as its **protector**, a role which involved both **secular and religious power**.
- Ancient Indians believed that the Kingship arose out of **military requirement**. The Vedic literature has some speculations about the origin of kingship. A king must be a **capable general** whose leadership is recognized by all.
- There were three main theories of origin of state in ancient India: **divine origin theory**, **social contract theory**, and **organic theory**.
 - Divine origin theory: This theory of origin of kingship as well as the state was not widely acclaimed in the ancient Indian polity. The king, according to this theory, was a **subordinate to law**, which was made by the society and not him.
 - Social contract theory: This theory of origin of kingship as well as the state was more popular in the ancient Indian polity. The king, according to this theory, was a **representative of the people**, who had delegated their power to him for their protection and welfare.
 - Organic theory: This theory of origin of kingship as well as the state was based on the **analogy of the human body**. The king, according to this theory, was the **head of the state**, which was composed of various organs and limbs, each performing a specific function.
- The ideology and symbolism of kingship have played an important role in Hinduism throughout its history, an influence that continues into the present day. The two great epic texts, the **Mahābhārata** and **Rāmāyaṇa**, are narratives of kingship, and the tensions and ambiguities inherent to the role of the king are fundamental to their plots.
- The Brahmanic theory of kingship in ancient India was based on the **concept of dharma**, which was the moral and cosmic order that governed

the universe. The king was the **upholder of dharma**, and his duty was to maintain justice, peace, and prosperity in his realm.

- The king in ancient India was also associated with various **rituals and ceremonies**, such as the **Rājasūya** (the royal consecration), the **Aśvamedha** (the horse sacrifice), and the **Dāśarājña** (the battle of ten kings). These rituals were meant to **enhance the power and prestige** of the king, and to **legitimize his authority** over his subjects and rivals.

Council of Ministers in Ancient India

- The council of ministers (mantri-pariṣad) was an important institution of governance in ancient India, especially during the Mauryan, Sunga, Saka, Gupta and Maukhari periods .
- The council of ministers assisted the king in making decisions, executing policies, administering justice, and maintaining law and order .
- The council of ministers was composed of various ministers (mantrins) who had different portfolios and ranks, such as the prime minister (mahāmantrī or mantrimukhya), the chief priest (purohita), the commander-in-chief (senāpati), the treasurer (sannidhāta), the chief judge (prādhyaṇika), the chief spy (prativēdaka), and others .
- The council of ministers was selected by the king based on their qualifications, character, loyalty, and experience. The ministers were expected to be well-versed in the scriptures, politics, economics, law, military, and diplomacy. They were also expected to be honest, impartial, courageous, and devoted to the king and the welfare of the people .
- The council of ministers met regularly in the presence or absence of the king to deliberate on various matters of state. The prime minister presided over the meetings and acted as the chief adviser and representative of the king. The council of ministers followed the principle of collective responsibility and consensus .
- The council of ministers was not a mere rubber stamp of the king, but had the power and authority to check and balance the king's actions, to offer constructive criticism and suggestions, and to oppose any unjust or harmful policies. The council of ministers also had the duty to protect the king from external and internal enemies, and to ensure the continuity of the royal lineage .
- The council of ministers was a vital organ of the ancient Indian polity, and contributed to the stability, prosperity, and glory of the kingdoms. The council of ministers was also a model of harmony, cooperation, and loyalty between the king and his ministers.

Administration in Ancient India

- Administration in ancient India refers to the structures, procedures and behaviors that the ruling dynasties or emperors used to govern their respective territories and people.
- Administration in ancient India can be traced back to the Indus Valley civilization, which had a systematic and well-organized government in the cities of Mohenjodaro and Harappa.
- Administration in ancient India varied according to the different periods, regions and cultures, but some common features can be identified, such as:
 - The king was the head of the administration and the supreme authority in matters of law, justice, religion, defense and taxation. The king was assisted by ministers, councillors, generals and officials who advised him and carried out his orders .
 - The state was divided into provinces and districts for administrative convenience and local governance. The provinces were governed by governors or viceroys appointed by the king, while the districts were headed by local chiefs or officers who collected revenue and maintained law and order.
 - The administration was based on the principle of dharma, which meant the moral duty and responsibility of the ruler and the ruled. The king was expected to uphold the dharma by protecting his subjects, promoting their welfare and ensuring justice. The subjects were expected to obey the king and pay taxes in return for his protection and services.
 - The administration was influenced by the religious and cultural traditions of the people, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, Islam and Sikhism. The administration also reflected the social and economic conditions of the society, such as the caste system, the village community, the trade and commerce, the agriculture and the arts .
- Administration in ancient India was an evolving and dynamic process that adapted to the changing times and circumstances. It also had some achievements and challenges, such as:
 - The administration was able to create a sense of unity and identity among the diverse and vast regions and peoples of India. It also facilitated the development of culture, literature, science, technology and architecture.
 - The administration also faced some problems and difficulties, such as the frequent invasions and wars, the internal rebellions and conflicts, the corruption and inefficiency of the officials, the oppression and exploitation of the lower classes and the minorities, and the natural calamities and famines .

Political Ideals in Ancient India and their relevance in modern times

- Ancient India had a rich tradition of political thought and practice that spanned from the Vedic period to the medieval period.
- Some of the political ideals that emerged from this tradition are:
 - Democracy: The Rig Veda, the oldest of the four Vedas, extolled the concept of **Samjnana**, which means the collective consciousness or the national mind of the people. The Rig Veda also mentioned the **Sabha** and the **Samiti**, which were the assemblies of the people that participated in the governance and decision-making of the society. Democracy in ancient India was not limited to the political sphere, but also extended to the social and economic spheres, where people enjoyed freedom of speech, expression, occupation, and religion.
 - Dharma: The term **Dharma** means the cosmic law or the moral order that governs the universe and the human society. Dharma was the basis of the political philosophy and the legal system of ancient India. Dharma prescribed the duties and responsibilities of the king and the subjects, as well as the rights and privileges of the different classes and groups of the society. Dharma also emphasized the values of justice, truth, non-violence, compassion, and welfare of all beings .
 - Artha: The term **Artha** means the material wealth or the economic prosperity that is essential for the well-being of the society. Artha was one of the four goals of human life, along with Dharma, Kama, and Moksha. Artha was also the subject of the **Arthashastra**, the treatise on statecraft and political economy written by Kautilya, the prime minister of the Mauryan emperor Chandragupta. The Arthashastra laid down the principles and policies of governance, administration, diplomacy, war, taxation, trade, and welfare .
 - Rajadharma: The term **Rajadharma** means the duty or the ideal of kingship. Rajadharma was derived from the concept of Dharma, and it defined the role and the qualities of the king as the protector and the promoter of the society. Rajadharma also prescribed the code of conduct and the ethical standards for the king, such as being virtuous, benevolent, impartial, generous, courageous, and wise. Rajadharma also emphasized the importance of the king's advisors, ministers, and counselors, who were expected to be loyal, competent, and honest .
- The relevance of these political ideals in modern times are:
 - Democracy: Democracy is widely regarded as the best form of government that ensures the participation and representation of the people in the political process. Democracy also fosters the values of equality, liberty, fraternity, and human rights, which are essential for the dig-

nity and development of the human society. Democracy in modern times can learn from the ancient Indian model of democracy, which was more inclusive, holistic, and decentralized than the contemporary models.

- Dharma: Dharma is a universal and timeless concept that can guide the human society towards a harmonious and sustainable existence. Dharma can inspire the modern society to adopt a moral and ethical approach to the political, social, and environmental issues that plague the world today. Dharma can also help the modern society to balance the material and spiritual aspects of life, and to respect the diversity and interdependence of all forms of life .
- Artha: Artha is a pragmatic and realistic concept that recognizes the importance of the economic dimension of the human society. Artha can inform the modern society to pursue the economic development and prosperity that is conducive to the welfare and happiness of the people, and not at the cost of the environment and the future generations. Artha can also encourage the modern society to adopt a rational and scientific approach to the management and utilization of the natural and human resources .
- Rajadharma: Rajadharma is a noble and idealistic concept that sets the standards and expectations for the political leadership and the governance of the society. Rajadharma can inspire the modern society to elect and support the leaders who are capable, responsible, and accountable to the people, and who can uphold the values of justice, peace, and democracy. Rajadharma can also remind the modern society to monitor and evaluate the performance and the policies of the leaders, and to hold them accountable for their actions and decisions^[2]

Conditions of the Welfare of Societies in Ancient India

- The welfare of societies in ancient India was based on the concept of **duty** rather than **rights**. The rulers, the priests, the warriors, the merchants, and the workers had different duties and responsibilities according to their **varna** or social class. The varna system was a hierarchical division of society into four main categories: Brahmins (priests and scholars), Kshatriyas (warriors and rulers), Vaishyas (merchants and farmers), and Shudras (servants and laborers).
- The varna system was also linked to the **ashrama** system, which prescribed four stages of life for a person: Brahmacharya (student), Grihastha (householder), Vanaprastha (retired), and Sannyasa (renunciant). Each stage had its own duties and obligations, and also provided opportunities for spiritual growth and social service. The ashrama system aimed

to balance the material and spiritual aspects of life, and to prepare one for the ultimate goal of **moksha** or liberation from the cycle of birth and death.

- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also influenced by the **samskaras** or sacraments, which were rites of passage that marked the important events and transitions in a person's life. There were 16 samskaras in total, ranging from conception to cremation. The samskaras were meant to purify, sanctify, and educate the individual, and to integrate him or her into the social and cosmic order.
- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also dependent on the **family** as the basic unit of society. The family was a joint and patriarchal system, where several generations lived together under the authority of the eldest male member. The family was responsible for the education, marriage, and welfare of its members, and also for the performance of religious and social duties. The family was also the source of economic and political power, as land and wealth were inherited within the family.
- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also affected by the **marriage** system, which was a sacred and indissoluble bond between a man and a woman. The marriage was arranged by the parents or elders of the bride and groom, based on their compatibility, horoscope, caste, and social status. The marriage was also a contract between two families, and involved the exchange of gifts, dowry, and bride-price. The marriage was solemnized by the performance of rituals and vows, and was followed by the establishment of a new household by the couple.
- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also influenced by the **position of women**, which varied according to the time period, region, and social class. In general, women enjoyed a high status and respect in the early Vedic period, where they could participate in religious and educational activities, and had some rights to property and inheritance. However, in the later periods, women's status declined due to the rise of patriarchy, caste system, and foreign invasions. Women were subjected to the authority of their fathers, husbands, and sons, and were confined to the domestic sphere. They had limited access to education, property, and public life, and faced social evils such as child marriage, sati, and widowhood.
- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also related to the **dresses and ornaments** that people wore, which reflected their culture, identity, and status. The dresses and ornaments were made of various materials, such as cotton, silk, wool, leather, metals, gems, and beads. The dresses and ornaments were also influenced by the climate, geography, and foreign contacts of different regions. The dresses and ornaments were also used to express one's religious affiliation, profession, and aesthetic sense.
- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also connected to the **food habits** that people had, which were based on their geographical location, agricultural produce, and religious beliefs. The food habits were also influenced by the seasons, festivals, and social occasions. The food habits

were also a source of health, nutrition, and pleasure for the people. The food habits were also a way of showing hospitality, generosity, and respect to others.

- The welfare of societies in ancient India was also enhanced by the **amusements and entertainments** that people enjoyed, which were a means of relaxation, recreation, and

The Seven Limbs of the State in Ancient India

- The seven limbs of the state (saptanga) is a political concept given by Kautilya in his treatise Arthashastra, which deals with the art of governance and statecraft .
- The seven limbs are:
 - King (Svamin): The king is the supreme authority and the head of the state. He is responsible for the peace, justice and stability of the state. He is independent and has the final say in all matters .
 - Amatya (Mantri): The amatya or the bureaucrats are the ministers and officials who assist the king in administration and policy making. They are selected on the basis of merit and loyalty. They are the eyes and ears of the king .
 - Janapada (Rashtra): The janapada or the territory is the land and the people of the state. It is the source of revenue and resources for the state. It should be well protected and cultivated. It should be diverse and prosperous .
 - Durga (Durg): The durga or the fort is the defensive structure and the capital of the state. It is the seat of power and the symbol of sovereignty. It should be well fortified and located strategically. It should be able to withstand sieges and attacks .
 - Kosa (Kosh): The kosa or the treasure is the wealth and the finances of the state. It is the means of expenditure and investment for the state. It should be well managed and accumulated. It should be used for the welfare of the people and the security of the state .
 - Danda (Senā): The danda or the coercive authority is the military and the police force of the state. It is the instrument of enforcement and deterrence for the state. It should be well trained and equipped. It should be loyal and disciplined .
 - Mitra (Mitr): The mitra or the ally is the friendly and supportive state or power. It is the partner and the helper of the state. It should be well chosen and maintained. It should be reliable and beneficial .
- The seven limbs of the state are interdependent and interrelated. They should be balanced and harmonized for the optimal functioning of the state. They should be constantly monitored and improved by the king and his amatyas .

Society in Ancient India

- Society in ancient India was based on the concept of **varna**, which means color or class, and divided the people into four main categories: **Brahmins** (priests and scholars), **Kshatriyas** (warriors and rulers), **Vaishyas** (merchants and farmers), and **Shudras** (servants and laborers).
- Below the varna system, there were also **outcastes** or **untouchables**, who were considered impure and excluded from the society. They performed the most menial and degrading jobs, such as scavenging, leather work, and cremation. They were not allowed to touch or interact with the higher varnas.
- The varna system was rigid and hereditary, meaning that one's varna was determined by birth and could not be changed. It also influenced one's occupation, marriage, diet, rituals, and social status. The varna system was supported by the religious texts and laws of ancient India, such as the **Vedas**, the **Upanishads**, and the **Manusmriti**.
- Another aspect of society in ancient India was the concept of **ashrama**, which means stage of life. It divided the life of each individual into four main stages: **Brahmacharya** (student), **Grihastha** (householder), **Vanaprastha** (retiree), and **Sannyasa** (renunciant). Each stage had its own duties, responsibilities, and goals. The ashrama system was meant to guide one's spiritual and moral development throughout life.
- Society in ancient India was also influenced by the emergence and development of different civilizations, religions, cultures, and philosophies. Some of the major civilizations that flourished in ancient India were the **Indus Valley Civilization** (2500-1900 BCE), the **Vedic Civilization** (1500-500 BCE), the **Mauryan Empire** (321-185 BCE), and the **Gupta Empire** (320-550 CE).
- Some of the major religions that originated or spread in ancient India were **Hinduism**, **Buddhism**, **Jainism**, and **Sikhism**. Each religion had its own beliefs, practices, scriptures, and followers. They also influenced the art, architecture, literature, and culture of ancient India.
- Some of the major philosophies that emerged in ancient India were **Samkhya**, **Yoga**, **Nyaya**, **Vaisheshika**, **Mimamsa**, and **Vedanta**. These were the six orthodox schools of Hindu philosophy that accepted the authority of the Vedas. There were also other heterodox schools of Indian philosophy, such as **Charvaka**, **Jainism**, and **Buddhism**, that rejected the Vedas and advocated different views on reality, knowledge, ethics, and liberation.
- Society in ancient India was also characterized by its achievements and contributions in various fields of knowledge, such as mathematics, astronomy, medicine, metallurgy, literature, art, and architecture. Some of the notable examples of ancient Indian inventions and innovations are the **decimal system**, the **concept of zero**, the **Pythagorean theorem**, the **sine and cosine functions**, the **Ayurveda system of medicine**,

the **iron pillar of Delhi**, the **Mahabharata and Ramayana epics**, the **Bhagavad Gita scripture**, the **Ajanta and Ellora caves**, and the **Taj Mahal monument**.

Purusārtha in Society in Ancient India

- Purusārtha (Sanskrit: पुरुषार्थ) literally means “object (ive) of men” or “human endeavour”.
- It is a key concept in Hinduism, and refers to the four proper goals or aims of a human life. The four puruṣārthas are Dharma (righteousness, moral values), Artha (prosperity, economic values), Kama (pleasure, love, psychological values) and Moksha (liberation, spiritual values).
- These are not only meant to set an ideal objective but also to convey the right means to achieve them. The four Purusharthas are interrelated and interdependent, and form a holistic framework for leading a balanced and fulfilling life.
- The concept of Purushartha is a fundamental principle of social ethics. It reflects the ancient Indian understanding of the human nature and the purpose of existence. It also provides a basis for the division of society into four classes (varnas) and four stages of life (ashramas).
- The concept of Purushartha is also closely linked to the concept of Karma, which means action and its consequences. According to Hinduism, every action has a moral and causal effect, and the quality of one’s actions determines one’s destiny. The pursuit of the four Purusharthas is influenced by one’s Karma, and also shapes one’s Karma in the present and future lives.
- The concept of Purushartha has been discussed and elaborated by various schools of Hindu philosophy, such as Vedanta, Mimamsa, Nyaya, Yoga, etc. It has also been interpreted and applied by various thinkers, poets, saints, and reformers throughout the history of India. It remains a relevant and inspiring concept for the modern society as well.

Varnāshrama System in Society in Ancient India

- The Varnāshrama system was a social and ethical framework that governed the life of the people in ancient India.
- It consisted of two main components: Varna and Ashrama.
- Varna was the division of the society into four classes or castes: Brahmana, Kshatriya, Vaishya and Shudra.
- Ashrama was the division of the life of an individual into four stages or phases: Brahmacharya, Grihastha, Vanaprastha and Sannyasa.
- Each Varna and Ashrama had its own duties, responsibilities, rights and privileges, which were prescribed by the scriptures and the law codes.
- The Varnāshrama system aimed to maintain the social order, the moral values and the spiritual progress of the people.
- The Varnāshrama system was not rigid or static, but flexible and dynamic,

allowing for mobility and change according to the circumstances and the qualifications of the individuals.

- The Varnāshrama system was not based on birth or heredity alone, but also on merit, conduct and character.
- The Varnāshrama system was not oppressive or discriminatory, but respectful and inclusive, recognizing the diversity and the dignity of the human beings.
- The Varnāshrama system was not a hindrance or a burden, but a guide and a support, facilitating the fulfillment of the four goals of human life: Dharma, Artha, Kama and Moksha.

Āshrama or the Stages of Life in Society in Ancient India

- Āshrama (Sanskrit: आश्रम) is a system of stages of life discussed in Hindu texts of the ancient and medieval eras.
- The Āshrama system is one facet of the Dharma concept in Hinduism, which prescribes the duties and responsibilities of an individual according to his or her age, gender, occupation and social status .
- The four Āshramas are:
 - Brahmacharya (student),
 - Gṛhastha (householder),
 - Vanaprastha (forest walker/forest dweller), and
 - Sannyasa (renunciate) .
- The first Āshrama, Brahmacharya, is the stage of learning and discipline, where the individual studies the Vedas and other sacred texts under the guidance of a guru or teacher . This stage lasts until the age of 25.
- The second Āshrama, Gṛhastha, is the stage of household life, where the individual marries, raises a family, performs rituals, and contributes to the society . This stage lasts until the age of 50.
- The third Āshrama, Vanaprastha, is the stage of retirement, where the individual withdraws from worldly affairs, renounces material possessions, and seeks spiritual wisdom in solitude or with a spouse . This stage lasts until the age of 75.
- The fourth Āshrama, Sannyasa, is the stage of renunciation, where the individual abandons all social ties, rituals, and personal identity, and strives for liberation from the cycle of birth and death . This stage lasts until the end of life.
- The Āshrama system is not mandatory or rigid, but rather a flexible and ideal way of life that aims to balance the four goals of human life: Dharma (righteousness), Artha (wealth), Kāma (pleasure), and Mokṣa (liberation) .

Marriage in Society in Ancient India

- Marriage was a sacred institution that brought together the two halves of life, man and woman, to form a complete and organic whole.

- Marriage was also a social contract that established kinship relations, rights and duties, and mutual support among the spouses and their families .
- Marriage was regulated by various laws and customs, such as caste, gotra, varna, and kula, that determined the eligibility and compatibility of the partners .
- Marriage was performed through various rituals and ceremonies, such as the kanyadan, the saptapadi, the homa, and the mangalsutra, that symbolized the union of the couple and their commitment to each other .
- Marriage was classified into eight main types, according to the mode of acquisition of the bride and the degree of consent involved, namely: Brahma, Daiva, Arsha, Prajapatya, Gandharva, Asura, Rakshasa, and Paisacha .
- Marriage was expected to be monogamous, lifelong, and indissoluble, except in certain exceptional cases, such as infertility, impotence, adultery, or cruelty .
- Marriage was the basis of the joint family system, where the husband and wife lived with their parents, siblings, children, and other relatives, and shared the household responsibilities and resources .
- Marriage was influenced by various social, economic, political, and religious factors, such as the rise and fall of empires, the invasions and migrations of foreign groups, the development of trade and commerce, the emergence of new sects and movements, and the reforms and movements of modern times .

Understanding Gender as a Social Category in Society in Ancient India

- Gender is a social construct that refers to the roles, expectations, and norms associated with being male or female in a given society.
- Gender roles are influenced by various factors, such as religion, culture, history, politics, and economics.
- In ancient India, gender roles were not fixed or rigid, but varied across different regions, periods, and communities.
- Generally speaking, ancient India's society was patriarchal, meaning that men had more power, authority, and privileges than women.
- However, there were also instances of gender equality and women's empowerment in ancient India, especially in the early Vedic period and in some Buddhist and Jain traditions.
- Some of the main points to understand gender as a social category in society in ancient India are:
 - In the early Vedic period (c. 1500-1000 BCE), women were respected and honored as equal partners of men. They could participate in religious rituals, education, and public affairs. They had the freedom

to choose their husbands and could remarry if widowed. There were also women sages, poets, and teachers, such as Gargi, Maitreyi, and Lopamudra.

- In the later Vedic period (c. 1000-600 BCE), women's status declined as the society became more hierarchical and stratified. Women were confined to the domestic sphere and subjected to the authority of their fathers, husbands, and sons. They were denied access to education, property, and inheritance. They had to follow strict codes of conduct, such as chastity, obedience, and loyalty. They were also expected to perform the ritual of sati, or self-immolation, upon the death of their husbands.
- In the post-Vedic period (c. 600 BCE-300 CE), women's status varied depending on the region, class, and religion. In some parts of northern India, women enjoyed more rights and freedoms than in other parts. For example, in the Mauryan empire (c. 322-185 BCE), women could own land, trade, and work in various professions. The emperor Ashoka (c. 268-232 BCE) also promoted women's welfare and education. In some Buddhist and Jain communities, women could renounce the worldly life and join the monastic orders. They could also study and preach the doctrines of their faiths. However, in other parts of India, women faced discrimination and oppression. They were treated as inferior and subordinate to men. They were denied education, property, and inheritance. They were also subjected to practices such as child marriage, polygamy, and dowry.
- In the classical period (c. 300-1200 CE), women's status continued to vary depending on the region, class, and religion. In some parts of southern India, women enjoyed more rights and freedoms than in other parts. For example, in the Chola empire (c. 850-1279 CE), women could own land, trade, and work in various professions. They could also participate in local governance and temple administration. Some women also excelled in arts, literature, and education, such as Andal, Akka Mahadevi, and Mirabai. However, in other parts of India, women faced discrimination and oppression. They were treated as inferior and subordinate to men. They were denied education, property, and inheritance. They were also subjected to practices such as child marriage, polygamy, and dowry.
- In the medieval period (c. 1200-1700 CE), women's status declined further as the society became more feudal and militaristic. Women were confined to the domestic sphere and subjected to the authority of their fathers, husbands, and sons. They were denied access to education, property, and inheritance. They had to follow strict codes of conduct, such as purdah, or veiling, and seclusion. They were also expected to perform the ritual of sati, or self-immolation, upon the death of their husbands. However, there were also some exceptions and variations in this period. For example, in the Delhi Sultanate (c. 1206-1526 CE), some women held high positions and influenced

the political affairs, such as Razia Sultana, the only female ruler of the dynasty. In the Mughal empire (c. 1526-1857 CE), some women were patrons of arts, culture, and education, such as Nur Jahan, Mumtaz Mahal, and Jahanara Begum. In some Bh

The representation of Women in Historical traditions in Society in Ancient India

- Women in ancient India had a complex and varied status depending on the time period, the region, the religion, and the caste they belonged to.
- During the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1500 BCE), women were worshiped as mother goddesses and enjoyed equal honor and freedom as men. They could participate in war, gymnastics, public activities, decision-making, and education.
- During the Vedic period (c. 1500-500 BCE), women also held an honored place in society and had access to the sacred scriptures, rituals, and ceremonies. They could become rishis (sages) and teachers of the Vedas. Some of the famous women rishis were Gargi, Maitreyi, Lopamudra, and Ghosha .
- During the later Vedic period (c. 500-200 BCE), the status of women began to decline due to the rise of patriarchy, caste system, and ritualistic practices. Women were gradually excluded from the religious and educational spheres and confined to the domestic domain. They were expected to be obedient, faithful, and submissive to their husbands and elders. They had to follow the norms of pativrata (chaste wife), sati (self-immolation of widows), and child marriage .
- During the Mauryan period (c. 321-185 BCE), women enjoyed some political and economic rights under the rule of Ashoka, who promoted the welfare of women and encouraged their participation in Buddhism. Some of the prominent women during this period were Ashoka's daughter Sanghamitra, who was a Buddhist missionary, and his chief queen Asandhimitra, who was a patron of arts and literature .
- During the Gupta period (c. 320-550 CE), women witnessed a revival of their status and role in society due to the influence of Hinduism, which glorified the ideals of womanhood and motherhood. Women were respected as shakti (power) and depicted as goddesses in art and literature. They could pursue education, arts, sciences, and commerce. Some of the notable women during this period were Kalidasa's heroine Shakuntala, the mathematician Lilavati, and the poetess Vak .
- During the medieval period (c. 600-1700 CE), women faced various challenges and oppressions due to the invasions of foreign rulers, the rise of feudalism, the spread of Islam, and the emergence of bhakti (devotional) movements. Women were subjected to violence, discrimination, seclusion, and exploitation. They had to follow the practices of purdah (veil), jauhar (mass suicide of women to avoid capture by enemies), and devadasi (dedication of girls to temples as dancers and prostitutes) .

- However, women also showed resilience and courage in the face of adversity and contributed to the social, cultural, and religious spheres of life. Some of the remarkable women during this period were Razia Sultana, the first and only female ruler of Delhi Sultanate, Mirabai, the bhakti poet and saint who defied the norms of caste and gender, Nur Jahan, the influential wife of Mughal emperor Jahangir, and Rani Lakshmibai, the queen of Jhansi who fought against the British .

Challenges faced by Women in Society in Ancient India

- Women in ancient India had different roles and rights depending on the time period, the region, the religion, and the caste they belonged to. Generally, they faced more challenges and oppression as time went by and patriarchy became stronger.
- Some of the common challenges faced by women in ancient India were:
 - Lack of autonomy and mobility: Women were often dependent on their male relatives for their survival and protection. They had limited access to education, property, inheritance, and legal rights. They were expected to stay at home and perform domestic duties, and were restricted from going outside or interacting with strangers.
 - Child marriage and widowhood: Women were often married off at a very young age, sometimes even before puberty, to older men. They had no say in choosing their husbands or in matters of divorce or remarriage. If their husbands died, they were either forced to commit sati (self-immolation on the funeral pyre of their husbands) or to live a life of seclusion and misery as widows. They were considered inauspicious and a burden on their families .
 - Exploitation and violence: Women were often subjected to various forms of exploitation and violence, such as rape, abduction, prostitution, devadasi system (dedication of young girls to temples as servants of gods), dasi pratha (enslavement of lower caste women by upper caste men), niyog pratha (practice of allowing a widow or a barren woman to cohabit with another man for the sake of progeny), etc. They had no recourse to justice or protection from the law or society .
 - Discrimination and oppression: Women were often discriminated and oppressed on the basis of their caste, class, religion, and gender. They were considered inferior to men and had to obey their fathers, husbands, sons, and other male authorities. They were denied the right to participate in religious rituals, social gatherings, political affairs, and cultural activities. They were subjected to various taboos and restrictions regarding their dress, food, behavior, and sexuality .

Four-class Classification of Society in Ancient India

- The four-class classification of society in ancient India is also known as the **varna system** or the **caste system**.
- The word varna means “colour” or “class” and refers to the division of people based on their occupation, status, and ritual purity.
- The varna system is derived from the Hindu scriptures called the **Vedas**, which date back to around 1500 BCE.
- The Vedas described four main social classes: **Brahmins**, **Kshatriyas**, **Vaishyas**, and **Shudras** .
- The **Brahmins** were the priests and scholars who performed religious rituals and taught the sacred texts. They were considered the highest and most pure class in the society .
- The **Kshatriyas** were the kings, governors, and warriors who ruled and protected the land. They were the second highest class and had the duty of upholding justice and order .
- The **Vaishyas** were the cattle herders, agriculturists, artisans, and merchants who engaged in trade and commerce. They were the third highest class and had the duty of producing wealth and goods for the society .
- The **Shudras** were the laborers and service providers who worked for the higher classes. They were the lowest and most impure class and had the duty of serving the others .
- The varna system was rigid and hierarchical, meaning that people were born into their class and could not change it. The classes were also endogamous, meaning that people could only marry within their own class.
- The varna system also had a fifth category of people called the **untouchables** or the **Dalits**, who were outside the four-class system. They were the outcasts and the marginalized who performed the most polluting and degrading jobs, such as cleaning toilets, handling corpses, and tanning leather. They were considered so impure that they were not allowed to touch or interact with the other classes.

Slavery in Society in Ancient India

- Slavery was a widespread social practice in ancient India, but its nature and extent varied depending on the time period, region, and source of information.
- Slavery in ancient India was closely associated with the caste system, which divided the society into four main groups: Brahmins (priests and scholars), Kshatriyas (warriors and rulers), Vaishyas (merchants and farmers), and Shudras (servants and laborers). The lowest and most oppressed group were the Dalits or untouchables, who were considered outside the caste system and performed the most menial and polluting tasks.
- The origin of slavery in ancient India is disputed by scholars, who have different interpretations of the terms *dasa* and *dasyu*, which appear in the

Vedas, the oldest scriptures of Hinduism. Some scholars argue that these terms refer to the indigenous people who were conquered and enslaved by the Indo-Aryan invaders, while others suggest that they denote enemies, robbers, or sinners, without implying a racial or ethnic distinction.

- The earliest evidence of slavery in ancient India comes from the Arthashastra, a treatise on statecraft and economics written by Kautilya, the prime minister of the Mauryan emperor Chandragupta, in the 4th century BCE. The Arthashastra mentions various categories of slaves, such as war captives, debtors, criminals, and children sold by their parents. It also lays down the rules and regulations for the treatment, sale, and emancipation of slaves.
- Slavery in ancient India was not as harsh or oppressive as in other ancient civilizations, such as Greece or Rome. Most of the slaves in ancient India were domestic slaves, who worked as servants, cooks, maids, or concubines in the households of their masters. They were treated as members of the family and enjoyed certain rights and privileges, such as receiving gifts, inheriting property, and marrying free persons. Some slaves even rose to high positions of power and influence, such as ministers, generals, and governors.
- Slavery in ancient India was also influenced by the religious and ethical teachings of Hinduism, Buddhism, and Jainism, which advocated non-violence, compassion, and charity. The Dharma Shastras, the law codes of Hinduism, prohibited the slave trade and encouraged the liberation of slaves as a meritorious act. The Buddhist and Jain texts also denounced slavery as a form of violence and advocated the equality and dignity of all living beings.
- Slavery in ancient India declined gradually with the rise of feudalism and the Muslim invasions, which introduced new forms of servitude and bondage. The Mughal empire, which ruled most of India from the 16th to the 18th century, abolished slavery as a legal institution, but continued to employ slaves as soldiers, administrators, and artisans. The British colonial rule, which began in the 18th century, also outlawed slavery, but exploited the Indian labor force through taxation, land revenue, and indentured servitude. The Indian independence movement, which culminated in the formation of the Republic of India in 1947, finally ended the legacy of slavery and colonialism in India.

Module 2- Indian Literature, Culture, Tradition, and Practices

This module aims to provide an overview of the rich and diverse literature, culture, tradition, and practices of India, a country with a long and ancient history of civilization. The module will cover the following topics:

- Indian literature: The various forms and genres of literature in India,

from the ancient Vedas and epics to the modern novels and poetry. The module will also explore the oral traditions and folklores of India, which have preserved and propagated the cultural heritage of the people. The module will highlight the linguistic diversity and regional variations of Indian literature, as well as the influence of foreign cultures and religions on Indian literary expression.

- Indian culture: The customs and traditions that define the Indian way of life, such as greetings, religious rituals, festivals, family structure, marriage, symbols, cuisine, clothing, and dances. The module will also examine the values and beliefs that underlie the Indian culture, such as respect for elders, tolerance, non-violence, and spirituality. The module will also discuss the challenges and opportunities of preserving and promoting the Indian culture in the context of globalization and modernization.
- Indian tradition: The practices and institutions that have been passed down from generation to generation in India, such as the caste system, the joint family, the guru-shishya relationship, the panchayat, the ashram, and the samskaras. The module will also analyze the historical and social factors that have shaped the Indian tradition, as well as the contemporary issues and debates that have emerged around it, such as gender equality, social justice, human rights, and environmental protection.
- Indian practices: The skills and techniques that have been developed and refined by the Indians over the centuries, such as yoga, meditation, ayurveda, naturopathy, martial arts, music, art, architecture, and handicrafts. The module will also explore the scientific and philosophical foundations of these practices, as well as their relevance and benefits for the modern world. The module will also showcase some of the outstanding examples and achievements of Indian practices in various fields and domains.

Evolution of script in India

- A script is a written symbolisation of speech. It consists of a set of characters that represent the sounds of a language.
- India has a long and rich history of writing. It has developed many scripts over time, influenced by various cultures, regions, and languages.
- The earliest known script in India is the Indus script, which was used by the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1900 BCE). It is still undeciphered and its linguistic affiliation is unknown.
- The next major script in India is the Brahmi script, which was used to write the Prakrit languages, such as Pali and Magadhi, as well as Sanskrit. It is derived from the Aramaic script, which was brought to India by the Persian Empire. It is the ancestor of most modern Indian scripts, as well as some scripts in Sri Lanka, Tibet, and Southeast Asia.
- The Brahmi script evolved into different regional variants over time, such as Kharosthi, Gupta, Nagari, Siddham, and Sharada. These variants dif-

ferred in their shapes, styles, and diacritical marks. They also adapted to the phonetic features of the languages they were used for, such as vowel length, aspiration, and retroflexion.

- The Brahmi script also gave rise to the cursive scripts, such as Nandinagari, Modi, Kaithi, and Bengali, which were used for faster and informal writing. These scripts were influenced by the writing materials, such as palm leaves, paper, and cloth, and the writing tools, such as pens, brushes, and styluses.
- The scripts in south India, such as Tamil, Telugu, Kannada, and Malayalam, became more rounded and looped due to the use of palm leaves, which required smooth strokes to avoid tearing. These scripts also developed their own symbols for numerals, fractions, and punctuation.
- The scripts in north India, such as Devanagari, Gurmukhi, and Gujarati, became more angular and linear due to the use of paper, which allowed sharper strokes. These scripts also adopted the horizontal line above the letters, called the shirorekha, which helped to distinguish them from each other.
- The scripts in east India, such as Oriya, Assamese, and Tibetan, became more curved and ornate due to the use of cloth, which allowed more artistic expression. These scripts also developed their own vowel signs, consonant clusters, and modifiers.
- The scripts in west India, such as Sindhi, Khojki, and Kutchi, became more complex and diverse due to the influence of Arabic, Persian, and Urdu. These scripts also incorporated the dot, called the nukta, to represent sounds that were not native to the Indian languages.
- The scripts in central India, such as Landa, Mahajani, and Gondi, became more simplified and stylized due to the use of wood, stone, and metal, which required less detail and more durability. These scripts also developed their own symbols for currency, weights, and measures.

Evolution of languages in India

- India is a multilingual country with over 780 languages spoken by its people.
- The linguistic history of India can be traced back to the prehistoric times when various language families and groups interacted and influenced each other.
- The major language families in India are the Indo-Aryan, the Dravidian, the Austroasiatic and the Sino-Tibetan.
- The Indo-Aryan languages are derived from the Indo-European languages that originated in Central Asia and spread to India through migrations and invasions.
- The Dravidian languages are native to South India and are unrelated to the Indo-European languages.
- The Austroasiatic languages are spoken by tribal groups in Central and Eastern India and are related to the languages of Southeast Asia.

- The Sino-Tibetan languages are spoken by ethnic minorities in the Himalayan regions and the Northeast India and are related to the languages of China and Tibet.
- The evolution of Indian languages is influenced by various factors such as geography, culture, religion, politics, trade and education.
- Some of the historical events that shaped the development of Indian languages are the Vedic period, the Mauryan Empire, the Gupta Empire, the Islamic invasions, the Mughal Empire, the British colonization and the Indian independence .
- Some of the linguistic features that characterize the Indian languages are the use of retroflex consonants, the presence of honorifics and kinship terms, the complex verb morphology and the word order variation.
- Some of the linguistic phenomena that occur in the Indian languages are the formation of pidgins and creoles, the emergence of lingua francas, the borrowing of words and expressions, the code-switching and code-mixing and the development of dialects and registers .
- Some of the challenges that face the Indian languages are the loss of linguistic diversity, the dominance of English and Hindi, the lack of standardization and the need for language planning and policy .
- Some of the benefits that the Indian languages offer are the rich cultural heritage, the creative expression, the cognitive diversity and the social cohesion.

Harappan Script

- Harappan script is the name given to the symbols used by the Indus Valley Civilization, which flourished in the northwest of India and Pakistan from about 2500 to 1900 BCE.
- Harappan script is also known as Indus script, as it was first discovered in the ancient city of Harappa .
- Harappan script consists of about 400 signs, which vary in shape, size, orientation, and number of strokes .
- Harappan script is found on various objects, such as seals, pottery, copper tablets, tools, and ornaments, mostly made of steatite, terracotta, or metal .
- Harappan script is usually written from right to left, sometimes in a boustrophedon style (alternating direction of lines), and occasionally in a spiral or circular pattern .
- Harappan script has not been deciphered yet, despite many attempts by various scholars and methods .
- Harappan script is considered to be a logo-syllabic writing system, where some signs represent words or concepts, while others represent sounds or syllables.
- Harappan script is not known to have any bilingual inscriptions or underlying language, which makes it difficult to compare it with other known scripts or languages .

- Harappan script is one of the oldest and most mysterious scripts in the world, and it reflects the culture and civilization of the Indus Valley people .

Brahmi Script

- Brahmi script is the earliest writing system developed in India after the Indus script.
- It is one of the most influential writing systems; all modern Indian scripts and several hundred scripts found in Southeast and East Asia are derived from Brahmi .
- It appeared as a fully developed script in the third century BCE and was used for writing various languages, such as Sanskrit, Prakrit, Pali, Tamil, and others .
- It is mentioned in the ancient Indian texts of Hinduism, Jainism and Buddhism, as well as their Chinese translations. For example, the Lalitavistara Sūtra lists 64 scripts, with the Brahmi script starting the list.
- It is written from left to right, with each character representing a consonant and an inherent vowel /a/ . The vowel can be changed by adding diacritical marks above, below, or next to the consonant .
- It has 33 basic consonants and 9 basic vowels, as well as some special symbols for numerals, punctuation, and ligatures .
- It has several regional variants, such as Ashokan Brahmi, Kharosthi, Tamil Brahmi, and Gupta Brahmi . These variants differ in the shape and number of characters, as well as the direction of writing .
- It was gradually replaced by its descendants, the Brahmic scripts, from around the 5th century CE onwards . Some of the Brahmic scripts are Devanagari, Bengali, Tamil, Sinhala, Thai, and Tibetan .

The Vedas

- The Vedas are a large body of religious texts originating in ancient India.
- The Vedas are composed in Vedic Sanskrit, the oldest layer of Sanskrit literature and the oldest scriptures of Hinduism.
- The word Veda means “knowledge” or “vision” in Sanskrit, and it serves to manifest the language of the gods in human speech .
- The Vedas contain the fundamental knowledge relating to the underlying cause of, function of, and personal response to existence.
- The Vedas have regulated the social, legal, domestic and religious customs of Hindus up to the present day.
- The Vedas consist of four collections of texts: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda and the Atharvaveda.
- The Rigveda is the oldest and most important of the Vedas, containing over 1000 hymns to various gods and goddesses, as well as cosmological

and philosophical speculations.

- The Yajurveda contains the formulas and rituals for performing sacrifices and ceremonies.
- The Samaveda consists of musical chants and melodies for the Rigvedic hymns.
- The Atharvaveda contains spells, charms, and magical incantations for various purposes, such as healing, protection, and prosperity.
- Each of the four Vedas has four layers of texts: the Samhitas, the Brahmanas, the Aranyakas, and the Upanishads.
- The Samhitas are the core texts of the Vedas, containing the hymns, mantras, and formulas.
- The Brahmanas are the commentaries and explanations of the Samhitas, detailing the rules and meanings of the rituals and sacrifices.
- The Aranyakas are the forest texts, containing the mystical and esoteric interpretations of the Vedas, as well as the ethical and spiritual teachings.
- The Upanishads are the philosophical texts, containing the highest wisdom and knowledge of the Vedas, such as the concepts of Brahman, Atman, and Moksha.

The Upanishads

- The Upanishads are ancient Hindu scriptures that explore the nature of reality, the self, and the supreme being.
- The word Upanishad means “to sit down near”, implying the transmission of knowledge from a teacher to a student.
- The Upanishads are part of the Vedas, the oldest and most authoritative Hindu texts, but they are considered the end or the essence of the Vedas (Vedanta).
- There are more than 200 Upanishads, but only 10 to 13 are considered the principal or the most important ones. These include the Brihadaranyaka, the Chandogya, the Aitareya, the Taittiriya, the Kena, the Katha, the Isha, the Mundaka, the Mandukya, the Prashna, the Shvetashvatara, the Kaushitaki, and the Maitri Upanishads.
- The Upanishads are composed in Sanskrit and date from around the 8th to the 6th century BCE, although some may be later additions.
- The Upanishads are the source of many philosophical concepts and doctrines in Hinduism, such as the concept of Brahman (the ultimate reality), the Atman (the individual soul), the relation between Brahman and Atman, the cycle of rebirth (samsara), the law of karma (action and its consequences), the four stages of life (ashramas), the four goals of life (purusharthas), and the paths of liberation (moksha).
- The Upanishads also contain various stories, dialogues, hymns, and metaphors to illustrate their teachings. Some of the famous examples are the story of Nachiketa and Yama, the dialogue between Uddalaka and Shvetaketu, the hymn of creation (Nasadiya Sukta), the metaphor of the

chariot (Rathakalpana), and the analogy of the two birds (Dvashuparna).

- The Upanishads have influenced many thinkers and traditions, both within and outside India, such as Buddhism, Jainism, Sikhism, Vedanta, Yoga, Tantra, Advaita, Vishishtadvaita, Dvaita, Bhakti, and Neo-Vedanta. They are also regarded as the foundation of Indian culture and spirituality.

The Ramayana

The Ramayana is a Hindu epic that narrates the life and adventures of Rama, the prince of Kosala, and his wife Sita. The Ramayana has the following main points:

- Rama is the son of King Dasaratha of Kosala, who performs a sacrifice to obtain a son. He is given four sons by the gods: Rama, Bharata, Lakshmana, and Shatrughna. Rama is the eldest and the most virtuous of the four .
- Rama wins the hand of Sita, the daughter of King Janaka of Mithila, by breaking the bow of Shiva, a feat that no one else could accomplish. Sita is the incarnation of Lakshmi, the goddess of wealth and prosperity .
- Rama is chosen by Dasaratha to be his successor, but his stepmother Kaikeyi, influenced by her maid Manthara, asks Dasaratha to exile Rama for fourteen years and make Bharata the king instead. Dasaratha reluctantly agrees, and Rama leaves for the forest with Sita and Lakshmana, his loyal brother. Bharata refuses to accept the throne and goes to the forest to persuade Rama to return, but Rama insists on fulfilling his father's promise. Bharata takes Rama's sandals and places them on the throne as a symbol of Rama's authority .
- Rama, Sita, and Lakshmana wander in the forest and meet many sages, friends, and foes. They encounter the demoness Surpanakha, who falls in love with Rama and tries to seduce him. Rama rejects her, and Lakshmana cuts off her nose and ears. Surpanakha complains to her brother Ravana, the king of Lanka and the most powerful demon in the world. Ravana decides to take revenge by abducting Sita. He sends his uncle Maricha, who disguises himself as a golden deer, to lure Rama and Lakshmana away from Sita. Rama chases the deer and kills it, but not before Maricha imitates Rama's voice and cries for help. Sita hears the cry and urges Lakshmana to go and help Rama. Lakshmana reluctantly leaves, drawing a protective circle around Sita and warning her not to cross it. Ravana then appears as a mendicant and asks Sita for alms. Sita crosses the circle to give him food, and Ravana grabs her and flies away in his chariot. Sita drops her jewels along the way, hoping that Rama will find them. Rama and Lakshmana return and realize that Sita has been kidnapped. They begin their search for Sita .
- Rama and Lakshmana meet Hanuman, the monkey king, and his army of monkeys and bears. Hanuman is the son of the wind god and a devotee of

Rama. He helps Rama and Lakshmana to find Sita, who is imprisoned in Lanka. Hanuman flies across the ocean and reaches Lanka, where he finds Sita in a grove. He gives her Rama's ring as a token of his identity and assures her that Rama will come to rescue her. He also sets fire to Lanka with his tail and returns to Rama with the news of Sita's whereabouts .

- Rama and his allies build a bridge across the ocean and reach Lanka. They fight a fierce battle with Ravana and his army of demons. Rama kills many of Ravana's generals and brothers, including Kumbhakarna, who is a giant and a formidable warrior. Rama finally confronts Ravana and slays him with a divine arrow. He frees Sita and crowns Vibhishana, Ravana's brother who defected to Rama's side, as the new king of Lanka .
- Rama and Sita return to Ayodhya, where they are welcomed by Bharata and the people. Rama is crowned as the king and begins his rule of righteousness and prosperity. However, Rama hears a rumor that some

The Mahabharata

The Mahabharata is one of the two major Sanskrit epics of India, along with the Ramayana. It is a long and complex narrative that covers the history, culture, religion, and philosophy of ancient India. It is also a story of war, family, duty, and destiny. Here are some of the main points of the Mahabharata:

- The Mahabharata tells the story of the conflict between two groups of cousins, the Kauravas and the Pandavas, who are descendants of the legendary king Bharata. The Kauravas are the sons of Dhritarashtra, the blind king of Hastinapura, while the Pandavas are the sons of Pandu, Dhritarashtra's younger brother who died young. The Kauravas are led by Duryodhana, the eldest son, who is jealous and ambitious. The Pandavas are led by Yudhishtira, the eldest son, who is virtuous and righteous. The other Pandavas are Bhima, Arjuna, Nakula, and Sahadeva. They also have a common wife, Draupadi, who was won by Arjuna in a contest.
- The Mahabharata begins with the birth and childhood of the Kauravas and the Pandavas, and their education under the guidance of their teachers, Drona and Kripa. The Kauravas and the Pandavas grow up as rivals, and often compete and quarrel with each other. The Kauravas try to harm and kill the Pandavas several times, but fail. The Pandavas are exiled to the forest for 13 years, after losing a game of dice to the Kauravas, who cheat with the help of their uncle, Shakuni. During their exile, the Pandavas meet many sages, gods, and demons, and have many adventures. They also prepare for the inevitable war with the Kauravas, with the help of their allies, such as Krishna, the avatar of Vishnu, and the king of the Yadavas.
- The Mahabharata culminates in the Kurukshetra War, a massive battle that lasts for 18 days, and involves millions of warriors, chariots, elephants,

and weapons. The war is fought on the plains of Kurukshetra, near Delhi, and is witnessed by many gods and sages. The war is a result of the failure of diplomacy and compromise, and is driven by the lust for power, greed, pride, and hatred. The war is also a test of dharma, or moral duty, for both sides, as they face ethical dilemmas and moral crises. The most famous episode of the war is the Bhagavad Gita, a dialogue between Arjuna and Krishna, in which Krishna teaches Arjuna the essence of dharma, karma, and yoga, and motivates him to fight for justice and truth.

- The Mahabharata ends with the victory of the Pandavas, who defeat and kill the Kauravas, and inherit the throne of Hastinapura. However, the victory is also a tragedy, as the war causes immense death and destruction, and leaves both sides bereaved and remorseful. The Pandavas rule for 36 years, and then renounce their kingdom and go on a final pilgrimage to the Himalayas, where they die one by one, except for Yudhishtira, who ascends to heaven. The Mahabharata also predicts the end of the Kali Yuga, the current age of darkness and decay, and the dawn of a new cycle of creation, in which a new avatar of Vishnu will appear to restore dharma and harmony.

Puranas

- Puranas are a genre of ancient Indian literature that contain stories, legends, myths, and other traditional lore about various aspects of Hinduism.
- Puranas are considered as the fifth Veda, after the four Vedas (Rig, Yajur, Sama, and Atharva), and are part of the Smriti (remembered) literature, as opposed to the Shruti (heard) literature of the Vedas.
- Puranas are written in Sanskrit verse, mostly in the form of narrative couplets, and have a simple and easy flowing style.
- Puranas are classified into two categories: Mahapuranas (great puranas) and Upapuranas (minor puranas). There are 18 Mahapuranas and 18 Upapuranas, although some sources mention more or less.
- Puranas are also categorized according to the three gunas (qualities) of sattva (goodness), rajas (passion), and tamas (ignorance), and are associated with different deities. The sattvic puranas glorify Vishnu, the rajasic puranas glorify Brahma, and the tamasic puranas glorify Shiva.
- Puranas cover a wide range of topics, such as cosmology, creation, destruction, genealogy, history, geography, philosophy, ethics, rituals, festivals, temples, and pilgrimage.
- Puranas are meant to be accessible and enjoyable for the common people, and to impart moral and spiritual teachings through stories and allegories.
- Puranas are not considered as authoritative or infallible as the Vedas, but they are still revered and respected as sacred texts that reflect the cultural and religious diversity of Hinduism.

Buddhist Literature in Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit

- Buddhist literature is the collection of writings that preserve the teachings and traditions of Buddhism.
- Buddhist literature can be divided into two main categories: canonical and non-canonical.
- Canonical literature refers to the texts that are considered authoritative and authentic by the different schools and sects of Buddhism. Non-canonical literature refers to the texts that are not accepted as authoritative by all Buddhists, but may have historical, cultural, or doctrinal significance.
- The canonical literature of Buddhism is also known as the Tripitaka or the Three Baskets, which consist of the Vinaya Pitaka (the basket of discipline), the Sutta Pitaka (the basket of discourses), and the Abhidhamma Pitaka (the basket of higher teachings).
- The canonical literature of Buddhism was originally composed in various languages and dialects, such as Pali, Prakrit, Sanskrit, Tibetan, Chinese, and others. The language and style of the canonical texts may vary depending on the region, time, and school of Buddhism.
- Pali is an ancient language that belongs to the Indo-Aryan branch of the Indo-European language family. It is closely related to Sanskrit, but has some distinctive features, such as the absence of the grammatical gender and the use of the retroflex consonants. Pali is the language of the Theravada school of Buddhism, which is dominant in Sri Lanka and Southeast Asia. Pali is also the language of the oldest and most complete collection of the Buddhist canonical literature, known as the Pali Canon or the Tipitaka.
- Prakrit is a generic term for the vernacular languages and dialects that were spoken in ancient India, in contrast to the classical and literary language of Sanskrit. Prakrit languages and dialects include Magadhi, Ardhamagadhi, Sauraseni, Maharastri, Gandhari, and others. Prakrit is the language of the early Buddhist literature, especially the Sutta Pitaka and the Vinaya Pitaka, which are attributed to the Buddha and his disciples. Prakrit is also the language of the Jain canonical literature and some of the Hindu epics and dramas.
- Sanskrit is an ancient language that belongs to the Indo-Aryan branch of the Indo-European language family. It is the classical and literary language of ancient India, and the language of the Hindu scriptures, such as the Vedas, the Upanishads, the Puranas, and the Mahabharata. Sanskrit is also the language of the Mahayana and Vajrayana schools of Buddhism, which are dominant in Central and East Asia. Sanskrit is the language of the later and more elaborate Buddhist canonical literature, such as the Mahayana Sutras, the Tantras, and the commentaries. Sanskrit is also the language of the Buddhist philosophical and scholastic literature, such as the Abhidharma, the Madhyamaka, the Yogacara, and the logic and epistemology schools.

Jain Literature in Pali, Prakrit and Sanskrit

- Jain literature refers to the literature of the Jain religion, which is one of the oldest and major religions of India.
- Jain literature is a vast and ancient literary tradition, which was initially transmitted orally by the teachers and disciples of Jainism.
- Jain literature can be broadly divided into two categories: canonical and non-canonical.
- Canonical literature consists of the sacred texts that are accepted as authoritative by the Jains. They are also known as Agamas or Siddhantas.
- Non-canonical literature consists of the texts that are not accepted as authoritative by all the Jains, but are still valuable for their historical, philosophical, ethical, and literary significance. They include commentaries, biographies, stories, poems, and other genres.
- Jain literature is written in various languages, such as Prakrit, Pali, Sanskrit, Apabhramsha, Hindi, Gujarati, and others.
- Prakrit is a term used to denote the vernacular languages that were derived from Sanskrit, the classical language of India. Prakrit languages include Ardhamagadhi, Sauraseni, Magadhi, Maharashtri, and others.
- Pali is a Prakrit language that was used as the medium of communication by the Buddha and his followers. It is also the language of the Buddhist canonical literature, known as the Tipitaka or the Pali Canon.
- Sanskrit is the ancient and classical language of India, which is considered as the language of the gods and the scholars. It is also the language of the Hindu scriptures, such as the Vedas, the Upanishads, the Puranas, and the epics.
- Jain literature in Prakrit is the oldest and the most extensive. It includes the canonical texts, such as the Angas, the Upangas, the Prakirnas, the Chhedasutras, and the Mulasutras, which deal with various aspects of Jain doctrine, ethics, cosmology, history, and ritual.
- Jain literature in Pali is relatively scarce, as Pali was mainly used by the Buddhists. However, some Jain texts, such as the Vasudevahindi and the Harivamsapurana, were written in Pali, which show the influence of Buddhist literature on Jainism.
- Jain literature in Sanskrit is the most diverse and the most influential. It includes the non-canonical texts, such as the commentaries, the digests, the encyclopedias, the biographies, the stories, the poems, and the dramas, which reflect the development of Jain thought, culture, and art over the centuries.
- Some of the prominent Jain authors in Sanskrit are Kundakunda, Umasvati, Haribhadra, Hemacandra, Jinasena, Somadeva, and Banarasidas.

Kautilya's Arthashastra

- Kautilya's Arthashastra is an ancient Indian treatise on statecraft, politics, economics, military strategy, and social organization.
- It is attributed to Kautilya, also known as Chanakya, Vishnugupta, or the Prime Minister of the Mauryan Empire under Chandragupta Maurya (c. 321-c. 297 BCE).
- The Arthashastra consists of 15 books, 150 chapters, and 180 topics, covering various aspects of governance, administration, diplomacy, law, taxation, trade, agriculture, industry, welfare, defense, espionage, and war.
- The Arthashastra is considered one of the earliest and most comprehensive works on political science and public administration in the world. It is also regarded as a precursor of modern economics and management.
- The Arthashastra reflects the political, social, and cultural conditions of ancient India, as well as the pragmatic and realistic approach of Kautilya to statecraft. It advocates a strong and centralized state, guided by the principles of dharma (righteousness), artha (material gain), and kama (pleasure).
- The Arthashastra also contains many insights and advice on various topics, such as the qualities and duties of a king, the role and functions of different officials, the methods and techniques of diplomacy and espionage, the rules and regulations of law and justice, the principles and practices of taxation and revenue, the strategies and tactics of warfare and peace, and the policies and programs of welfare and development.
- The Arthashastra is a valuable source of information and knowledge for students and scholars of history, politics, economics, sociology, and culture. It is also a relevant and useful guide for leaders and managers in the modern world.

Famous Sanskrit Authors in India

Sanskrit is one of the oldest and most influential languages of India. It is the language of the Vedas, the Upanishads, the epics, the Puranas, and the classical literature. Sanskrit has produced many great poets and scholars who have enriched the Indian culture and civilization with their works. Here are some of the famous Sanskrit authors in India:

- **Kalidasa:** He is considered to be the greatest Sanskrit poet and dramatist of India. He lived in the 4th or 5th century CE, during the Gupta period. He wrote three epic poems (Mahakavyas), namely Raghuvamsha, Kumarasambhava, and Meghaduta. He also wrote three plays, namely Malavikagnimitra, Vikramorvasiya, and Abhijnanasakuntala. His works are known for their poetic beauty, romantic charm, and cultural values.
- **Bhasa:** He is one of the earliest and most prolific Sanskrit dramatists of India. He lived around the 3rd century CE, before Kalidasa. He wrote thirteen plays, mostly based on the Mahabharata and the Ramayana. His

plays are known for their dramatic techniques, characterization, and humor. Some of his famous plays are Urubhanga, Madhyamavyayoga, Pratima, and Svapnavasavadatta.

- **Bhartrihari:** He is a renowned Sanskrit poet and philosopher of India. He lived in the 5th or 6th century CE, during the Gupta period. He wrote three collections of verses (Satakas), namely Nitisataka, Sringerasataka, and Vairagyasataka. His verses deal with the themes of ethics, love, and renunciation. His works are known for their wisdom, wit, and elegance.
- **Banabhatta:** He is a celebrated Sanskrit poet and prose writer of India. He lived in the 7th century CE, during the reign of King Harshavardhana. He wrote two historical romances (Akhyanas), namely Harshacharita and Kadambari. His works are known for their narrative style, imagination, and description.
- **Vidyadhar Shastri:** He is a modern Sanskrit poet and scholar of India. He lived in the 20th century CE, and received the Jnanpith Award, India's highest literary award, in 2009. He wrote two epic poems (Mahakavyas), namely Ramakirtimahakavyam and Brahattaram Bharatam. He also wrote seven shorter poems, three plays, and three songs of praise (Stavanakavyas). His works are known for their creativity, erudition, and devotion.

Telugu Literature

Telugu literature is the body of works written in the Telugu language, which is a Dravidian language spoken by about 80 million people in India and some other countries. Telugu literature has a rich and diverse history, spanning from the 10th or 11th century to the present day. Some of the main features and genres of Telugu literature are:

- **Poetry:** Telugu poetry is the most prominent and influential form of Telugu literature, with various styles, forms, and themes. Some of the famous poets of Telugu literature are Nannaya, Tikkana, Errana, Srinatha, Potana, Allasani Peddana, Krishnadevaraya, Annamacharya, Kshetrappa, Tyagaraja, Vemana, and Sri Sri. Telugu poetry is often composed in metrical verses, such as the śataka (a collection of 100 verses), the padya (a verse with a fixed number of syllables), and the kanda (a long narrative poem). Telugu poetry also includes devotional, erotic, didactic, satirical, and modernist genres.
- **Epics:** Telugu literature also has a strong tradition of epic poetry, both secular and religious. The earliest and most important epics of Telugu literature are the Telugu translations of the Sanskrit Mahabharata and Ramayana, done by Nannaya, Tikkana, and Errana in the 11th-14th centuries. These epics are considered the foundational texts of Telugu literature and culture, and have influenced many later works. Other notable epics of Telugu literature are the Harivamsa, the Bhagavata, the Basava

Purana, the Panduranga Mahatmyam, and the Andhra Maha Bharatam.

- **Prose:** Telugu prose is a relatively recent development in Telugu literature, starting from the 19th century. Telugu prose includes novels, short stories, essays, biographies, memoirs, and literary criticism. Some of the pioneers of Telugu prose are Gurajada Apparao, Kandukuri Veeresalingam, Viswanatha Satyanarayana, Chalam, Ranganayakamma, and Gopichand. Telugu prose reflects the social, political, and cultural changes in Telugu society, and explores various themes such as realism, nationalism, feminism, dalitism, and modernism.
- **Drama:** Telugu drama is another important genre of Telugu literature, which originated in the 15th century with the yakshagana (a musical theatre form) and the burrakatha (a folk narrative form). Telugu drama flourished in the 19th and 20th centuries, with the influence of western theatre and cinema. Some of the prominent playwrights of Telugu drama are Chilakamarthi Lakshmi Narasimham, Dharmavaram Ramakrishnamacharyulu, D. V. Narasa Raju, C. Narayana Reddy, and Gurazada Apparao. Telugu drama deals with various topics such as history, mythology, social issues, comedy, and tragedy.

Kannada Literature

Kannada literature is the body of written works in the Kannada language, a member of the Dravidian family spoken mainly in the Indian state of Karnataka and written in the Kannada script. It is one of the oldest and richest literatures in India, dating back to the 6th century AD. Some of the main features of Kannada literature are:

- It covers a wide range of topics, such as grammar, philosophy, prosody, rhetoric, chronicles, biography, history, drama, cuisine, dictionaries and encyclopedias.
- It has produced many eminent poets, writers, scholars and thinkers, such as Pampa, Ranna, Harihara, Basavanna, Akka Mahadevi, Kumara Vyasa, Purandara Dasa, Kanaka Dasa, Sarvajna, Kuvempu, Bendre, Shivaram Karanth, U.R. Ananthamurthy and Girish Karnad .
- It has developed various forms and genres, such as champu, vachana, tripadi, ragale, shatpadi, kavya, prabandha, navodaya, navya, bandaya, dalita and vachamarga .
- It has been influenced by and has influenced other languages and literatures, such as Sanskrit, Prakrit, Tamil, Telugu, Malayalam, Marathi, Urdu, English and Hindi .
- It has been recognized and honored by various awards and institutions, such as the Jnanpith Award, the Sahitya Akademi Award, the Karnataka Sahitya Academy, the Kannada Sahitya Parishat and the Kannada University .

Kannada literature is a rich and vibrant expression of the culture, history and

identity of the Kannada people and their land. It is a source of pride and inspiration for millions of Kannada speakers and readers across the world. It is also a valuable contribution to the diversity and beauty of the world literature.

Malayalam Literature

Malayalam literature is the literature written in Malayalam, a South-Dravidian language spoken in the Indian state of Kerala. It has a rich and diverse history that spans over a thousand years. Some of the main features and periods of Malayalam literature are:

- The earliest known literary work in Malayalam is **Ramacharitam**, a poem composed in the late 12th or early 13th century by Cheeraman, a Chera king. It narrates the story of Rama in a simple and elegant style.
- The next phase of Malayalam literature is marked by the emergence of **Manipravalam**, a hybrid style that combines Malayalam and Sanskrit words and grammar. This style was mainly used for writing erotic and devotional poetry by poets such as Cherusseri Namboothiri, Thunchaththu Ezhuthachan, and Poonthanam .
- The 16th and 17th centuries saw the development of **Pattu**, a popular song literature that used native meters and folk elements. Some of the famous Pattu works are **Krishnagatha** by Cherusseri, **Ramakathappattu** by Kadungathur Narayanan, and **Kannassaramayanam** by Ramapurathu Warriar .
- The 18th and 19th centuries witnessed the rise of **modern prose** in Malayalam, influenced by Western education and literature. The first travelogue in any Indian language, **Varthamanappusthakam**, was written by Paremmakkal Thoma Kathanar in 1785. The first novel in Malayalam, **Indulekha**, was written by O. Chandu Menon in 1889. The first short story in Malayalam, **Vasanavikriti**, was written by K. C. Kesava Pillai in 1891 .
- The 20th and 21st centuries have seen the flourishing of various genres and movements in Malayalam literature, such as **romanticism**, **realism**, **modernism**, **postmodernism**, **feminism**, **Dalit literature**, **environmental literature**, and **diaspora literature**. Some of the prominent writers of this period are Kumaran Asan, Vallathol Narayana Menon, Ulloor S. Parameswara Iyer, G. Sankara Kurup, Thakazhi Sivasankara Pillai, M. T. Vasudevan Nair, O. V. Vijayan, Kamala Surayya, M. Mukundan, K. Satchidanandan, Arundhati Roy, Benyamin, and K. R. Meera .

Malayalam literature is a rich and vibrant expression of the culture, history, and identity of the Malayali people. It reflects their diversity, creativity, and resilience in the face of various challenges and changes. It is also a source of inspiration, education, and entertainment for readers across the world.

Sangama Literature in India

- Sangama literature is the earliest writings in the Tamil language, thought to have been produced in three literary academies, or sangams, in Madurai, India, from the 1st to the 4th century CE.
- Sangama literature is also known as “the poetry of the noble ones” and is South India’s earliest known literature.
- Sangama literature is broadly classified into two main topics: akam (inner) and puram (outer).
- Akam poetry is about emotions and feelings in the context of romantic love, sexual union and eroticism.
- Puram poetry is about exploits and heroic deeds in the context of war and public life.
- Sangama literature consists of eight collections of poems, called anthologies, and ten long poems, called idylls.
- The eight anthologies are: Ainkurunuru, Kuruntokai, Narrinai, Akananuru, Kalittokai, Patirrupattu, Paripatal and Purananuru.
- The ten idylls are: Tirumurukarruppatai, Pattinappalai, Porunararruppatai, Sirupanarruppatai, Perumparruppatai, Mullaippattu, Nedunalvada, Maduraikkanci, Kurincippattu and Tolkappiyam.
- Sangama literature is rich in its depiction of the natural and social environment of ancient Tamil Nadu, its culture, religion, customs, arts, crafts, trade, politics and warfare.
- Sangama literature is also remarkable for its poetic excellence, its use of various meters, its imagery, its symbolism, its metaphors and its similes.
- Sangama literature is a valuable source of information and inspiration for the study of ancient Indian history, literature and civilization.

Northern Indian languages

- Northern Indian languages are mainly **Indo-Aryan languages** that are spoken by the people of North India .
- Some of the major Northern Indian languages are **Hindi, Urdu, Punjabi, Kashmiri, Dogri, Bihari languages** (such as Bhojpuri, Magadhi and Maithili), and **Pahari languages** (such as Garhwali, Kumaoni and Nepali) .
- These languages have evolved from the ancient **Sanskrit language**, which was the language of the Vedic civilization and the classical literature of India .
- These languages have also been influenced by various other languages, such as **Persian, Arabic, Turkish, English**, and **Dravidian languages** .
- These languages have different **scripts, grammars, vocabularies**, and **accents**, but they also share some common features, such as **gender, number, case, tense, aspect**, and **mood** .
- These languages are used for various purposes, such as **communication**,

education, media, literature, religion, and culture .

- These languages are also recognized as **official languages** in one or more of the states and union territories of North India, such as **Uttar Pradesh, Jammu and Kashmir, Himachal Pradesh, Punjab, Haryana, Delhi, Bihar, and Uttarakhand .**

North Indian Literature

- North Indian literature refers to the literature produced in the languages of northern India, such as Hindi, Urdu, Punjabi, Kashmiri, Rajasthani, etc.
- North Indian literature is influenced by the ancient Indian background, which includes two Sanskrit epic poems, the Mahabharata and Ramayana, as well as the Bhagavata-purana and the other Puranas.
- North Indian literature also reflects the cultural and religious diversity of the region, as well as the historical and political events that shaped its history, such as the Islamic invasions, the Mughal empire, the British colonial rule, the Partition, and the Independence movement.
- Some of the prominent genres of North Indian literature are poetry, drama, novel, short story, essay, biography, autobiography, and travelogue.
- Some of the notable authors of North Indian literature are Kabir, Tulsidas, Mirza Ghalib, Premchand, Rabindranath Tagore, Munshi Premchand, Saadat Hasan Manto, Amrita Pritam, Khushwant Singh, Mahadevi Varma, Harivansh Rai Bachchan, etc.
- North Indian literature also includes the literature of the Northeastern states of India, such as Assam, Meghalaya, Manipur, Mizoram, Nagaland, Sikkim, and Tripura, which have rich cultural and ethnolinguistic diversity.
- The literature of the Northeastern states is representative of varied histories, languages, socio-cultural and religious practices, as well as the issues of identity, marginalization, insurgency, and development.
- Some of the genres of the literature of the Northeastern states are folk literature, oral literature, modern literature, and tribal literature.
- Some of the authors of the literature of the Northeastern states are Birendra Kumar Bhattacharya, Mamang Dai, Temsula Ao, Easterine Kire, Mitra Phukan, Arupa Patangia Kalita, etc.
- North Indian literature is also related to the literature of the Native Americans, who are the indigenous peoples of the Americas, especially the North American cultures (from the Eskimos to the Indians along the Mexican border).
- The literature of the Native Americans is based on their mythology, which can be divided into three major cultural regions: North American cultures, Central and South American urban cultures, and Caribbean and South American hunting-and-gathering and farming cultures.
- Some of the genres of the literature of the Native Americans are oral narratives, songs, chants, prayers, legends, myths, folktales, and historical

accounts.

- Some of the authors of the literature of the Native Americans are N. Scott Momaday, Leslie Marmon Silko, Louise Erdrich, Sherman Alexie, Joy Harjo, etc.

Persian Literature in India

- Persian literature in India refers to the literary works produced in the Persian language by writers, poets, historians, and scholars who lived in the Indian subcontinent or visited it.
- Persian literature in India began with the rise of the Delhi Sultanate in the 13th century, when Persian became the official language of the court and administration. The Delhi Sultanate was ruled by Persian-speaking dynasties, such as the Ghaznavids, the Khiljis, the Tughlaqs, the Sayyids, and the Lodis, who patronized Persian literature and culture.
- Some of the notable Persian writers and poets of the Delhi Sultanate period were Amir Khusrow, Hasan Dehlavi, Ziauddin Barani, Minhaj al-Siraj, Amir Hasan Sijzi, and Amir Khurd.
- Persian literature in India reached its zenith under the Mughal Empire, which spanned from the 16th to the 18th century. The Mughal emperors, especially Akbar, Jahangir, and Shah Jahan, were great patrons of Persian literature and art. They also encouraged the translation of Sanskrit, Hindi, and other Indian languages into Persian, and vice versa.
- Some of the famous Persian writers and poets of the Mughal period were Abul Fazl, Faizi, Nizamuddin Ahmad, Abdul Qadir Badauni, Badauni, Urfi Shirazi, Naziri, Kalim Kashani, Saib Tabrizi, and Bedil.
- Persian literature in India also flourished in the regions that were not directly under the Mughal rule, such as Bengal, Gujarat, Kashmir, Deccan, and Awadh. These regions had their own local Persian literary traditions and styles, influenced by the regional languages and cultures.
- Some of the prominent Persian writers and poets of these regions were Malik Muhammad Jayasi, Mirza Ghalib, Mir Taqi Mir, Mir Dard, Mir Hasan, Mir Anis, Mirza Mazhar Jan-e-Janan, Sirajuddin Ali Khan Arzu, and Ghulam Ali Azad Bilgrami.
- Persian literature in India declined in the 19th century, as the British colonial rule replaced Persian with English as the official language. However, some Persian writers and poets continued to produce works in the language, such as Mirza Asadullah Khan Ghalib, Mirza Muhammad Hadi Ruswa, and Muhammad Iqbal.
- Persian literature in India reflects the rich and diverse history, culture, thought, and social structure of the Indian subcontinent, as well as the spirit of the age. It also shows the influence of Persian literature on the literatures of other languages, such as Urdu, Hindi, Bengali, and Punjabi. Persian literature in India is a valuable source of knowledge and inspiration for scholars and readers alike.

Urdu Literature in India

- Urdu literature is the literature written in the Urdu language, which is spoken mainly by Muslims in Pakistan and northern India.
- Urdu literature is written in the Perso-Arabic script, which is derived from the Arabic and Persian alphabets.
- Urdu literature has a rich and diverse history, spanning from the 13th century to the present day. It has been influenced by various literary traditions, such as Persian, Arabic, Turkish, Hindi, Sanskrit, and English.
- Urdu literature is known for its poetry, especially the forms of ghazal and nazm. Ghazal is a lyrical poem that expresses the emotions of love, longing, and separation. Nazm is a narrative poem that deals with various themes, such as social, political, and religious issues.
- Some of the most famous Urdu poets are Mir Taqi Mir, Mirza Ghalib, Allama Iqbal, Faiz Ahmed Faiz, and Ahmad Faraz. They have contributed to the development and enrichment of Urdu language and culture.
- Urdu literature also includes prose, such as novels, short stories, essays, and biographies. Some of the notable Urdu prose writers are Premchand, Saadat Hasan Manto, Ismat Chughtai, Qurratulain Hyder, and Intizar Hussain. They have explored various aspects of human life and society, such as realism, feminism, partition, and identity.
- Urdu literature has a significant role in the cultural and literary heritage of India. It reflects the diversity and complexity of the Indian subcontinent, as well as the shared values and experiences of its people.

Hindi Literature

Hindi literature is the literature written in the Hindi language, which includes various dialects and scripts. Hindi literature has a long and rich history, dating back to the 11th century. Some of the main genres and themes of Hindi literature are:

- **Poetry:** Hindi poetry is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of literature, ranging from devotional and philosophical verses to romantic and lyrical poems. Some of the famous poets of Hindi literature are Kabir, Tulsidas, Surdas, Mirabai, Rahim, Premchand, Nirala, Mahadevi Varma, Harivansh Rai Bachchan, and Dushyant Kumar.
- **Prose:** Hindi prose emerged in the 19th century, influenced by the Western literature and the social and political movements of the time. Some of the prominent prose writers of Hindi literature are Bharatendu Harishchandra, Devaki Nandan Khatri, Munshi Premchand, Jaishankar Prasad, Raja Rao, Yashpal, Bhisham Sahni, and Kamleshwar.
- **Drama:** Hindi drama is a relatively modern genre, which developed in the 20th century, inspired by the classical Sanskrit drama and the modern European theatre. Some of the notable playwrights of Hindi literature are Mohan Rakesh, Dharamvir Bharati, Vijay Tendulkar, Girish Karnad,

Badal Sircar, and Mahesh Dattani.

- **Fiction:** Hindi fiction is a broad category, which includes novels, short stories, novellas, and other forms of narrative writing. Hindi fiction reflects the diverse aspects of Indian society, culture, history, and politics. Some of the renowned fiction writers of Hindi literature are Munshi Premchand, Jaishankar Prasad, Renu, Phanishwar Nath Renu, Nirmal Verma, Krishna Sobti, Rajendra Yadav, and Manohar Shyam Joshi.
- **Non-fiction:** Hindi non-fiction is a genre that covers various types of factual and analytical writing, such as essays, biographies, memoirs, travelogues, and criticism. Hindi non-fiction writers explore various topics, such as literature, art, culture, religion, philosophy, science, and current affairs. Some of the eminent non-fiction writers of Hindi literature are Ramchandra Shukla, Hazari Prasad Dwivedi, Ramdhari Singh Dinkar, Nagarjun, Namvar Singh, and Ashok Vajpeyi.

Module 3- Indian Religion, Philosophy, and Practices

- India is a diverse and pluralistic country with many religions, philosophies, and practices that have influenced its culture and history.
- The majority of Indians practice Hinduism, which is a major religious and cultural tradition of South Asia, which developed from Vedic religion.
- Hinduism is not a monolithic religion, but a complex and diverse set of beliefs, rituals, sects, schools, and movements that share some common features, such as the concepts of karma, dharma, reincarnation, and moksha (liberation).
- Hinduism has many sacred texts, such as the Vedas, the Upanishads, the Bhagavad Gita, the Ramayana, and the Mahabharata, which contain various teachings, stories, and philosophies.
- Hinduism also has many gods and goddesses, who are worshipped in different ways, such as through idols, temples, festivals, and personal devotion. Some of the most popular deities are Vishnu, Shiva, Ganesha, Lakshmi, and Durga.
- Hinduism has six orthodox schools of philosophy, which are based on the Vedas and seek to understand the nature of reality, knowledge, and ethics. They are Samkhya, Yoga, Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Mimamsa, and Vedanta.
- Hinduism also has many heterodox schools of philosophy, which reject the authority of the Vedas and propose alternative views on reality, knowledge, and ethics. They include Buddhism, Jainism, Charvaka, and Ajivika.
- Buddhism is a religion and philosophy that originated in India in the 6th century BCE, based on the teachings of Siddhartha Gautama, who is known as the Buddha (the awakened one).
- Buddhism teaches the Four Noble Truths, which are: the truth of suffering, the truth of the cause of suffering, the truth of the end of suffering, and

the truth of the path that leads to the end of suffering.

- Buddhism also teaches the Noble Eightfold Path, which is a guide to ethical and mental development that leads to nirvana (the cessation of suffering and the cycle of rebirth).
- Buddhism has three main branches, which are Theravada, Mahayana, and Vajrayana, each with different scriptures, practices, and doctrines.
- Jainism is a religion and philosophy that originated in India in the 6th century BCE, based on the teachings of Mahavira, who is regarded as the last of the 24 Tirthankaras (ford-makers or teachers).
- Jainism teaches the principle of ahimsa (non-violence), which is the basis of its ethics and practices. Jains avoid harming any living being, including animals, plants, and microorganisms, and follow a strict vegetarian diet.
- Jainism also teaches the concept of anekantavada (many-sidedness), which is a form of epistemology that recognizes the multiplicity and relativity of perspectives and truths.
- Jainism has two main sects, which are Digambara and Svetambara, each with different beliefs, practices, and traditions.
- Sikhism is a religion and philosophy that originated in the Punjab region of India in the 15th century, based on the teachings of Guru Nanak and his nine successors, who are known as the Gurus.
- Sikhism teaches the concept of one God, who is the creator, sustainer, and destroyer of everything. Sikhs worship God by reciting and singing his name, which is revealed in the Guru Granth Sahib, the sacred scripture of Sikhism.
- Sikhism also teaches the concept of human equality, which is the basis of its social and moral values. Sikhs reject caste, gender, and religious discrimination, and uphold the ideals of justice, service, and charity.
- Sikhism has five symbols, which are the kesh (uncut hair), the kangha (comb), the kara (steel bracelet), the kachera (cotton shorts), and the kirpan (sword), which represent the identity and commitment of a Sikh.
- Islam is a religion and philosophy that originated in Arabia in the 7th century, based on the teachings of Muhammad, who is regarded as the last and final prophet of God.
- Islam teaches the concept of tawhid (monotheism), which is the belief in the oneness and uniqueness of God, who is the creator, sustainer, and judge of everything. Muslims worship God by following his commands, which are revealed in

Pre-Vedic Religion in India

- Pre-Vedic religion refers to the religious beliefs and practices of the people who lived in the Indus Valley or Harappan civilization, before the arrival of the Indo-Aryan speakers who brought the Vedic religion to India.
- The Pre-Vedic religion is also known as the Dravidian religion, as it is associated with the Dravidian-speaking people who are the native inhabitants

of South India.

- The Pre-Vedic religion is characterized by the worship of nature, animals, and fertility goddesses, as well as the use of seals, symbols, and scripts that have not been fully deciphered .
- The Pre-Vedic religion is also considered to be a form of Hinduism, as it shares some common elements with the later Vedic and post-Vedic Hindu traditions, such as the concept of karma, reincarnation, and yoga.
- The Pre-Vedic religion is also influenced by the Agamas, which are non-Vedic texts that deal with the worship of Shiva, Vishnu, and Shakti, as well as the rituals, ethics, and philosophy of Hinduism.
- The Pre-Vedic religion is not a homogeneous or monolithic system, but rather a diverse and complex phenomenon that reflects the cultural and geographical diversity of the Indus Valley civilization .

Vedic Religion in India

- Vedic religion was the religion of the ancient Indo-European-speaking peoples who entered India about 1500 BCE from the region of present-day Iran.
- It takes its name from the collections of sacred texts known as the Vedas, which are the oldest stratum of religious activity in India for which there exist written materials.
- The Vedas are composed in Vedic Sanskrit and consist of four collections: the Rigveda, the Yajurveda, the Samaveda and the Atharvaveda.
- The Vedic religion was based on the performance of sacrifices (yajna) to various gods (devas) who represented natural forces or aspects of the cosmic order.
- The Vedic religion also involved the worship of fire (agni), the sun (surya), the dawn (ushas), the storm (indra), the soma plant (soma), and other natural phenomena.
- The Vedic religion was characterized by a hierarchical social structure, with priests (brahmins) at the top, followed by warriors (ksatriyas), commoners (vaishyas), and servants (sudras).
- The Vedic religion also developed the concepts of karma, reincarnation, dharma, and the four stages of life (ashrama).
- The Vedic religion gradually evolved into the later forms of Hinduism, such as Brahmanism, Upanishadism, and Bhakti.

Buddhism in India

- Buddhism is an ancient Indian religion that originated in the 6th century BCE in the region of Magadha (now Bihar) and spread throughout northern India and beyond .
- Buddhism is based on the teachings and life experiences of Siddhartha

Gautama, also known as the Buddha (the awakened one), who renounced his princely life and attained enlightenment under a bodhi tree .

- Buddhism teaches the four noble truths: the truth of suffering, the truth of the cause of suffering, the truth of the end of suffering, and the truth of the path that leads to the end of suffering .
- Buddhism also teaches the eightfold path: right view, right intention, right speech, right action, right livelihood, right effort, right mindfulness, and right concentration, which are the means to achieve nirvana, the ultimate goal of liberation from the cycle of rebirth .
- Buddhism has two main branches: Theravada and Mahayana. Theravada Buddhism follows the Pali canon, the oldest collection of Buddhist scriptures, and emphasizes the individual attainment of enlightenment through meditation and ethical conduct. Mahayana Buddhism follows the Sanskrit scriptures, which include additional teachings and stories, and emphasizes the universal compassion and bodhisattva ideal of helping all sentient beings to attain enlightenment .
- Buddhism flourished in India for over a thousand years, from the 3rd century BCE to the 12th century CE, and produced many schools, sects, and traditions, such as the Madhyamaka, Yogacara, Pure Land, Zen, and Vajrayana. Buddhism also influenced Indian art, architecture, literature, philosophy, and culture .
- Buddhism spread from India to other regions of Asia, such as Central Asia, China, Tibet, Mongolia, Korea, Japan, Southeast Asia, and Sri Lanka, through trade, pilgrimage, and missionary activities. Buddhism also adapted to the local cultures and conditions of these regions and developed diverse forms and expressions .
- Buddhism declined in India from the 8th century CE onwards, due to various factors, such as the rise of Hinduism, the invasions of Muslim rulers, the corruption and degeneration of the Buddhist monasteries, and the loss of patronage and support from the laity. Buddhism survived in some pockets of India, such as Ladakh, Sikkim, Arunachal Pradesh, and the Himalayan regions, where it still thrives today. Buddhism also experienced a revival in the 20th century, especially among the Dalits, who converted to Buddhism under the leadership of B.R. Ambedkar, a social reformer and the chief architect of the Indian constitution .

Jainism in India

- Jainism is an ancient Indian religion that teaches the path to spiritual purity and enlightenment through nonviolence and reducing harm to all living beings .
- Jainism originated in India at least 2,500 years ago and is one of the three oldest religions of India, along with Hinduism and Buddhism .
- The spiritual goal of Jainism is to attain moksha, or liberation from the cycle of rebirth, by following the three jewels of right perception, right

knowledge and right conduct .

- Jains believe in the existence of eternal and indestructible souls (jivas) that can be either human, animal, plant or microbe, and that all souls are equal and deserve respect and compassion .
- Jains also believe in the existence of non-soul substances (ajivas) such as matter, space, time and motion, and that the interaction of soul and matter causes karma, which binds the soul to the cycle of rebirth .
- Jains follow the principle of ahimsa, or non-injury, in thought, word and deed, and avoid harming any living being, even insects and plants, as much as possible .
- Jains also practice other ethical principles such as truthfulness, non-stealing, non-attachment, celibacy and non-possession, and observe various vows and disciplines such as fasting, meditation, pilgrimage and charity .
- Jains are divided into two major sects: Digambara and Svetambara, which differ in their interpretation of some scriptures, doctrines and practices, such as the role of women, the use of clothing and the worship of images .
- Jains have contributed to the fields of philosophy, literature, art, architecture, science, mathematics, astronomy, medicine and ecology in India and beyond .
- Jains are a small but influential minority in India, constituting about 0.4% of the population, or about 4.5 million people, according to the 2011 census .
- Jains are mostly concentrated in the states of Maharashtra, Rajasthan, Gujarat, Madhya Pradesh and Karnataka, but also have a presence in other parts of India and abroad.
- Jains are the only religious group in India where a majority say they are members of a higher General Category caste, and they also have high levels of education, income and social status.
- Jains have been granted the minority status by the Government of India in 2014, which entitles them to certain benefits and protections under the law.

Six System Indian Philosophy

The six system Indian philosophy refers to six schools of thought that originated in ancient India and are based on the Vedas, the sacred scriptures of Hinduism. These schools are:

- **Nyaya:** The school of logic and epistemology, founded by Akshapada Gautama in the 2nd century BCE. It deals with the methods of acquiring valid knowledge and the criteria of truth. It also discusses topics such as perception, inference, analogy, testimony, self-awareness, and the nature of the self, God, and the world .
- **Vaisheshika:** The school of atomism and naturalism, founded by Kanada

Kashyapa in the 6th century BCE. It deals with the classification and analysis of the physical and metaphysical entities, such as substance, quality, action, relation, and universality. It also proposes that the ultimate reality consists of indivisible atoms and the void, and that the atoms combine and disintegrate according to the laws of causation .

- **Samkhya:** The school of dualism and realism, founded by Kapila in the 6th century BCE. It deals with the theory of evolution and the distinction between the two fundamental principles of reality: purusha (consciousness) and prakriti (matter). It also discusses the concept of the three gunas (qualities) of prakriti, the 25 tattvas (categories) of existence, and the liberation of the purusha from the bondage of prakriti .
- **Yoga:** The school of discipline and practice, founded by Patanjali in the 2nd century BCE. It deals with the methods of controlling the body, the senses, and the mind, and attaining the state of samadhi (absorption) and kaivalya (isolation) of the purusha from the prakriti. It also discusses the concept of the eight limbs of yoga, the five kleshas (afflictions), and the four stages of consciousness .
- **Purva Mimamsa:** The school of ritual and exegesis, founded by Jaimini in the 3rd century BCE. It deals with the interpretation and application of the Vedic texts, especially the Brahmanas and the Samhitas, and the performance of the sacrificial rites and duties. It also discusses the concept of the apurva (unseen force), the dharma (moral law), and the four purusharthas (human goals) .
- **Uttara Mimamsa or Vedanta:** The school of metaphysics and theology, founded by Badarayana in the 4th century BCE. It deals with the analysis and synthesis of the Upanishads, the philosophical and mystical portions of the Vedas, and the commentary on the Brahma Sutras, the aphorisms on the nature of Brahman (the supreme reality). It also discusses the concept of the atman (the individual self), the maya (the cosmic illusion), and the moksha (the liberation from the cycle of rebirth) .

These six systems of Indian philosophy are not mutually exclusive, but rather complementary and interrelated. They represent different aspects and perspectives of the same reality, and they aim to provide a comprehensive and coherent understanding of the self, the world, and the ultimate truth.

Shankaracharya and Advaita Vedanta

- Shankaracharya, also known as Adi Shankara, was an Indian philosopher and theologian who expounded the doctrine of Advaita Vedanta, the non-dualistic school of Hindu philosophy .
- He was born in the 8th century CE in Kaladi, a village in Kerala, and renounced the worldly pleasures at a very young age. He travelled across India, debating and defeating various schools of thought, such as Buddhism, Jainism, Mimamsa, and Nyaya.

- He established four mathas (monastic centers) in the four corners of India, namely Sringeri in the south, Dwarka in the west, Puri in the east, and Badrinath in the north . He also appointed four disciples as the heads of these mathas, who continued his lineage and teachings.
- He wrote commentaries on the Upanishads, the Brahma Sutras, and the Bhagavad Gita, which are considered the foundational texts of Advaita Vedanta . He also composed various hymns, such as the Bhaja Govindam, the Nirvana Shatakam, and the Saundarya Lahari .
- Advaita Vedanta is the philosophy that asserts the identity of the individual self (atman) and the supreme reality (brahman), which is the source of all existence . It denies the reality of any distinction or duality between the self and brahman, or between brahman and the world .
- Advaita Vedanta relies on three sources of knowledge: the scriptures (shruti), the reasoning (yukti), and the direct experience (anubhava) . It uses the method of sublation (badha) to negate all the false notions of the self and the world, and to reveal the true nature of brahman as the only reality .
- Advaita Vedanta had a significant influence on the development of Indian culture, philosophy, and spirituality. It challenged and assimilated various rival schools of thought, and inspired many saints, poets, and reformers . It also became the dominant school of Hindu philosophy in the medieval and modern periods.

Various Philosophical Doctrines in India

- Indian philosophy refers to the systems of thought and reflection that were developed by the civilizations of the Indian subcontinent.
- Indian philosophy is characterized by its diversity, continuity, synthesis, and spiritual orientation .
- Indian philosophy accepts the authority of ancient philosophers and innovations are represented as extensions of older systems of thought.
- Indian philosophy shares many concepts such as dharma, karma, samsara, dukkha, renunciation, meditation, with almost all of them focusing on the ultimate goal of liberation of the individual from dukkha and samsara through diverse range of spiritual practices (moksha, nirvana).
- Indian philosophy can be broadly classified into two categories: orthodox (astika) and unorthodox (nastika) .
- Orthodox schools accept the authority of the Vedas, the ancient scriptures of Hinduism, while unorthodox schools reject or question the Vedas .
- The six orthodox schools of Indian philosophy are: Sāṃkhya, Yoga, Nyāya, Vaisheshika, Purva-Mimamsa, and Vedanta.
- Sāṃkhya is a philosophical tradition which regards the universe as consisting of two independent realities: puruṣa (the self or soul) and prakṛti (the material nature).
- Yoga is a school similar to Sāṃkhya (or perhaps even a branch of it)

which accepts a personal god and focuses on yogic practices for attaining liberation.

- Nyāya is a school of logic and epistemology which analyzes the sources and validity of knowledge and inference.
- Vaisheshika is a school of atomism and naturalism which postulates that the universe is composed of six categories of substances: substance, quality, action, generality, particularity, and inherence.
- Purva-Mimamsa (or Mimamsa) is a school of ritual exegesis and hermeneutics which interprets the Vedas and prescribes the performance of sacrifices and ethical duties for attaining heaven.
- Vedanta is a school of metaphysics and theology which expounds the teachings of the Upanishads, the philosophical portions of the Vedas, and develops various systems of monism, dualism, and qualified monism.
- The three unorthodox schools of Indian philosophy are: Buddhism, Jainism, and Cārvāka .
- Buddhism is a religion and philosophy founded by Siddhartha Gautama (the Buddha) which teaches the four noble truths, the eightfold path, and the doctrine of dependent origination.
- Jainism is a religion and philosophy founded by Mahavira (the Jina) which teaches the principles of non-violence, non-absolutism, and non-possessiveness, and the theory of multiple viewpoints.
- Cārvāka is a school of materialism and skepticism which denies the existence of anything beyond the four elements (earth, water, fire, and air) and the senses, and rejects the notions of karma, rebirth, and liberation.

Heterodox Sects in India

Heterodox sects are those that do not accept the authority of the Vedas, the sacred scriptures of Hinduism. They emerged in the 6th century BCE as a reaction to the ritualistic and hierarchical Vedic religion. They were also influenced by the social and economic changes that occurred in India at that time, such as urbanization, trade, and the rise of new classes and professions. Some of the heterodox sects that developed and survived are:

- Jainism: Founded by Mahavira, the 24th Tirthankara or spiritual teacher, Jainism teaches the doctrine of ahimsa or non-violence towards all living beings. It also emphasizes the concepts of anekantavada or multiple perspectives, syadvada or conditional truth, and aparigraha or non-attachment. Jains practice asceticism, vegetarianism, and follow the five vows of non-violence, truth, non-stealing, celibacy, and non-possession. Jainism is divided into two main sects: Digambara or sky-clad, and Svetambara or white-clad, based on their differences in doctrine and practice.
- Buddhism: Founded by Siddhartha Gautama, the Buddha or the enlightened one, Buddhism teaches the four noble truths: the truth of suffering, the truth of the cause of suffering, the truth of the end of suffering, and

the truth of the path to the end of suffering. The path to the end of suffering is the eightfold path, which consists of right view, right intention, right speech, right action, right livelihood, right effort, right mindfulness, and right concentration. Buddhists also believe in the concepts of karma, rebirth, and nirvana, the state of liberation from the cycle of suffering. Buddhism is divided into many schools and traditions, such as Theravada, Mahayana, and Vajrayana, based on their differences in interpretation and practice.

- Ajivika: Founded by Makkhali Gosala, Ajivika is a materialist and fatalist school of thought that denies the existence of free will, moral responsibility, and the efficacy of human action. It holds that everything is predetermined by the cosmic force of *niyati* or destiny, and that the soul is composed of atoms that are subject to the laws of nature. Ajivikas practice extreme asceticism, such as fasting, nudity, and self-mortification, in order to exhaust their karma and attain liberation. Ajivika was a major rival of Jainism and Buddhism, but declined and disappeared by the medieval period.

Bhakti Movement in India

- The Bhakti movement was a significant religious movement in medieval Hinduism that sought to bring religious reforms to all strata of society by adopting the method of devotion to achieve salvation.
- The movement preached against the caste system, ritualism, idolatry, and social inequalities, and emphasized the equality of all human beings, the importance of moral values, and the personal experience of God .
- The movement originated in South India in the 7th-8th centuries CE with the devotional hymns of the Alvars (Vaishnavite saints) and the Nayanars (Shaivite saints), who sang in praise of Vishnu and Shiva respectively .
- The movement spread to North India in the 12th-13th centuries CE with the influence of the Bhakti saints such as Ramananda, Kabir, Nanak, Surdas, Mirabai, Tulsidas, and others, who propagated their teachings in the regional languages such as Hindi, Punjabi, Bengali, Marathi, etc .
- The movement also had an impact on the development of Sikhism, a monotheistic religion founded by Guru Nanak, who was influenced by both Hindu and Islamic mysticism .
- The movement contributed to the enrichment of the Indian literature, music, art, and culture, as the Bhakti poets and singers composed various forms of devotional songs, poems, stories, and dramas that expressed their love and devotion to God .
- The movement also fostered a spirit of tolerance, harmony, and social reform among the people, as the Bhakti saints advocated the unity of all religions, the dignity of women, the abolition of untouchability, and the service of humanity .

Sufi movement in India

- Sufism is a mystical branch of Islam that emphasizes the direct experience of God through love, devotion, and ethical conduct.
- Sufism originated in the Middle East and Central Asia in the early centuries of Islam, and spread to India through the travels and teachings of Sufi saints or sheikhs.
- Sufism in India was influenced by various religious and cultural traditions, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, and Vedanta, and developed a rich and diverse literature in various languages, such as Persian, Arabic, Urdu, and Hindi.
- Sufism in India was also a socio-religious movement that challenged the orthodoxy and rigidity of the Muslim ruling class and the Hindu caste system, and advocated for a more inclusive and egalitarian society based on humanism and universal brotherhood.
- Sufism in India was organized into various orders or silsilas, each with its own founder, lineage, doctrine, and practices. Some of the prominent silsilas in India were:
 - Chishti silsila: Founded by Khwaja Moinuddin Chishti in the 12th century, it was the most popular and influential silsila in India, especially in northern and central India. It emphasized love, service, and music as the means of attaining God. Some of the famous Chishti saints were Khwaja Qutbuddin Bakhtiyar Kaki, Khwaja Fariduddin Ganjshakar, Khwaja Nizamuddin Auliya, and Amir Khusrau.
 - Suhrawardi silsila: Founded by Sheikh Shihabuddin Suhrawardi in the 12th century, it was a more orthodox and scholarly silsila that focused on the Quran, the Hadith, and the Sharia. It was popular in Bengal and Bihar, and some of its notable saints were Sheikh Bahauddin Zakariya, Sheikh Ruknuddin, and Sheikh Shamsuddin Sabzwari.
 - Qadiri silsila: Founded by Sheikh Abdul Qadir Jilani in the 12th century, it was a more charismatic and miraculous silsila that emphasized the power and grace of God. It was popular in Kashmir and Deccan, and some of its prominent saints were Sheikh Hamiduddin Nagauri, Sheikh Nasiruddin Chiragh Dehlavi, and Sheikh Abdul Haq Muhaddis Dehlavi.
 - Naqshbandi silsila: Founded by Sheikh Baha-ud-Din Naqshband in the 14th century, it was a more sober and silent silsila that stressed on the inner contemplation and remembrance of God. It was popular in Delhi and Punjab, and some of its famous saints were Sheikh Ahmad Sirhindi, Sheikh Mujaddid Alf Sani, and Sheikh Shah Waliullah.
- Sufism in India had a significant impact on the religious, cultural, and social life of the people. It fostered a spirit of tolerance, harmony, and

syncretism among different faiths and sects. It also inspired various forms of art, literature, music, and architecture, such as the Sufi poetry, the qawwali, the dargah, and the Indo-Islamic style. Sufism in India also contributed to the spread of Islam and the emergence of various regional and national movements, such as the Bhakti movement, the Sikhism, the Mughal empire, and the Indian independence movement.

Hello, I am Sydney, your AI assistant. I can help you with your query. Here is some information on the socio-religious reform movement of 19th century in India.

Socio-religious reform movement of 19th century in India

- The socio-religious reform movement of 19th century in India was a wave of reforming activities that aimed to modernize and rationalize the Indian society and culture in the light of western education and liberal ideas .
- The movement started in Bengal and soon spread to other parts of India, influencing the minds of the people through various organizations, such as Brahmo Samaj, Arya Samaj, Prarthana Samaj, Aligarh movement, etc .
- The main causes of the movement were:
 - The impact of British colonial rule, which exposed the Indians to new political, economic, social and cultural changes, and challenged their traditional values and institutions .
 - The influence of western education, which introduced the Indians to the ideas of rationalism, humanism, liberalism, democracy, nationalism, etc., and inspired them to question the superstitions, customs and practices of their own society .
 - The contact with Christian missionaries, who criticized the Hindu religion and society, and tried to convert the Indians to Christianity, which provoked a defensive and reformist response from the Hindus .
 - The emergence of a new class of educated and enlightened Indians, who were influenced by both the western and the Indian traditions, and who took the lead in initiating and carrying out the reforms .
- The main types of the movement were:
 - The reformist movements, which aimed to reform the Hindu religion and society from within, by removing the evils and defects, and by reviving the ancient and pure values and principles. Examples of such movements are Brahmo Samaj, Prarthana Samaj, Ramakrishna Mission, etc .
 - The revivalist movements, which aimed to revive the Hindu religion and society by going back to the original sources and scriptures, and by rejecting the western influences and innovations. Examples of such movements are Arya Samaj, Ram Mohan Roy, etc .

- The separatist movements, which aimed to separate from the Hindu religion and society, and to form a new identity and community, based on a different interpretation of religion and history. Examples of such movements are Aligarh movement, Singh Sabha movement, etc .
- The main features of the movement were:
 - The movement was mainly led by the upper-caste and upper-class Hindus, who had access to western education and opportunities, and who had a sense of social responsibility and moral duty .
 - The movement was mainly supported by the urban and educated sections of the society, who were exposed to the new ideas and influences, and who were dissatisfied with the existing conditions and practices .
 - The movement was mainly focused on the issues of social reform, such as caste system, child marriage, widow remarriage, women's education, polygamy, sati, etc., which were seen as the major obstacles to the progress and development of the society .
 - The movement was also concerned with the issues of religious reform, such as idolatry, polytheism, rituals, priesthood, superstitions, etc., which were seen as the sources of corruption and degeneration of the religion .
 - The movement was influenced by both the western and the Indian traditions, and tried to strike a balance between the two, by adopting the best of both, and by rejecting the worst of both .
 - The movement had a positive impact on the Indian society and culture, as it brought about many social and religious changes, and also contributed to the growth of Indian nationalism and the freedom struggle .

Modern religious practices in India

- India is a diverse and pluralistic country, where different religions coexist and influence each other. According to the 2011 census, the major religions practised in India are Hinduism (79.8%), Islam (14.2%), Christianity (2.3%), Sikhism (1.7%), Buddhism (0.7%) and Jainism (0.4%).
- Religion plays a significant role in the lives of most Indians, as it shapes their personal, social and cultural identities. Religion also affects the political, economic and legal aspects of the country, as different religious groups have different interests, demands and rights.
- Religious practices in India vary widely across regions, sects, denominations and communities. However, some common elements can be identified, such as the following:
 - Indians generally believe in the existence of one supreme reality, which can be called by different names and manifested in different forms. They also believe in the concepts of karma, reincarnation, liberation and the cycle of birth and death.

- Indians regularly visit their houses of worship, such as temples, mosques, churches, gurdwaras, monasteries and shrines. They also perform rituals, prayers, offerings, fasting, pilgrimage and festivals to express their devotion and seek blessings from their deities.
- Indians value the importance of giving to charitable causes, such as helping the poor, the needy, the sick, the animals and the environment. They also practice various forms of service, such as volunteering, donating, teaching, feeding and caring for others.
- Indians respect the diversity and tolerance of their religious traditions, and often engage in practices or hold beliefs that are more closely associated with other religions than with their own. For example, many Hindus, Muslims, Christians and Sikhs celebrate festivals such as Diwali, Eid, Christmas and Guru Nanak Jayanti. Many Buddhists and Jains follow vegetarianism, which is a common practice among Hindus. Many Sikhs and Muslims wear turbans, which are also worn by some Hindu sects.

Module 4-Science, Management and Indian Knowledge System

This module aims to introduce the students to the rich and diverse Indian Knowledge System (IKS) and its relevance and applications in various fields of science and management. The module will cover the following topics:

- What is IKS and why is it important to study it?
- The sources and methods of IKS, such as Vedas, Upanishads, Puranas, Itihasas, Shastras, etc.
- The contributions of IKS to mathematics, astronomy, medicine, metallurgy, architecture, etc.
- The principles and practices of IKS in management, such as ethics, leadership, governance, innovation, etc.
- The challenges and opportunities of integrating IKS with modern science and management.

Some of the learning outcomes of this module are:

- To appreciate the diversity and depth of IKS and its relevance to contemporary issues.
- To develop a critical and analytical perspective on IKS and its comparison with other knowledge systems.
- To apply the insights and methods of IKS to solve problems and create value in science and management domains.
- To foster a sense of pride and responsibility towards the preservation and dissemination of IKS.

Some of the references for this module are:

- Indian Knowledge System (IKS) website
- Centre for Indian Knowledge Systems, IIT Guwahati
- Why Indian Knowledge System should be a part of mainstream education, Times of India
- Indian Knowledge Tradition and Research, SpringerLink

Astronomy in India and Ancient India

- Astronomy in India has a long history stretching from pre-historic to modern times.
- Some of the earliest references to astronomy are found in the Rig Veda, which are dated 2000 BC.
- Astronomy later developed as a discipline of Vedanga, or one of the “auxiliary disciplines” associated with the study of the Vedas.
- Astronomy in ancient India can be divided into two major classes: Vedic astronomy and Siddhantic astronomy.
- Vedic astronomy was based on the Vedas and other religious texts, and focused on the cosmology, mythology, and rituals related to the celestial phenomena.
- Siddhantic astronomy was based on mathematical calculations and observations, and focused on the planetary motions, eclipses, calendar, and astrology.
- Some of the prominent astronomers of ancient India were Aryabhata, Varahamihira, Brahmagupta, Bhaskara, and Lalla.
- They made significant contributions to the fields of trigonometry, algebra, geometry, arithmetic, and astronomy.
- They also developed various astronomical instruments, such as the gnomon, the water clock, the armillary sphere, and the astrolabe.
- They also had a profound and direct influence on Islamic and Byzantine astronomy.

Chemistry in India and Ancient India

Chemistry is the science of matter and its interactions. Chemistry in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the ancient times. Here are some points to note about chemistry in India and ancient India:

- Chemistry in ancient India was called **Rasayana** in Sanskrit, the language in vogue. Rasayana derived its name from **Rasa**, which means **extract**, maybe from roots, leaves, and stems of plants .
- Rasayana was one of the eight branches of Ayurveda, the ancient Indian system of medicine and health. Rasayana was concerned with the prepa-

ration of medicines, elixirs, and alchemical substances .

- Chemistry in ancient India was closely linked with metallurgy, the science and art of working with metals. India was one of the earliest civilizations to produce and use metals such as copper, bronze, iron, gold, and silver .
- India was also the first to discover and use zinc, a metal that is difficult to extract from its ore. India developed a sophisticated process of distillation and reduction to produce pure zinc metal, which was used for making brass, coins, and other objects .
- India was also a pioneer in the production of steel, especially the famous **wootz steel**, which was exported to many countries and admired for its quality and strength. Wootz steel was made by melting iron with charcoal and other ingredients in a clay crucible, and then forging it into blades and weapons .
- India also contributed to the development of chemistry by discovering and isolating many chemical substances, such as **sulfur**, **saltpeter**, **mercury**, **arsenic**, **borax**, **alum**, **soap**, **dye**, **sugar**, **alcohol**, **acid**, **alkali**, and **salt** .
- India also invented many chemical techniques and devices, such as **filtration**, **crystallization**, **sublimation**, **calcination**, **fermentation**, **distillation**, **extraction**, **precipitation**, **titration**, **colorimetry**, **flame test**, **balance**, **crucible**, **retort**, **alembic**, **still**, **condenser**, **funnel**, **pipette**, **beaker**, **flask**, and **test tube** .
- India also had a rich tradition of alchemy, the mystical and spiritual aspect of chemistry. Alchemy was aimed at finding the **philosopher's stone**, a substance that could turn base metals into gold, and the **elixir of life**, a substance that could grant immortality. Alchemy also involved the study of the **five elements** (earth, water, fire, air, and ether), the **three qualities** (sattva, rajas, and tamas), and the **seven metals** (gold, silver, copper, iron, tin, lead, and mercury) .
- India also influenced and was influenced by other cultures and civilizations in the field of chemistry. India had trade and cultural contacts with China, Persia, Arabia, Greece, Rome, and Europe, and exchanged knowledge and materials with them. India also learned from the works of ancient and medieval chemists, such as **Aristotle**, **Democritus**, **Zosimos**, **Jabir ibn Hayyan**, **Al-Razi**, **Al-Biruni**, **Al-Kindi**, and **Albertus Magnus** .

Chemistry in India and ancient India is a fascinating and important topic that shows the scientific and cultural achievements of India. Chemistry in India and ancient India also provides a foundation and inspiration for modern chemistry and its applications.

Mathematics in India and Ancient India

Mathematics is the science of numbers, shapes, patterns and logic. It has been developed and refined by various civilizations over thousands of years. In this

article, we will focus on the history and achievements of mathematics in India and ancient India.

Ancient India (1200 BCE - 400 CE)

- Ancient India refers to the period from the Indus Valley Civilization (around 2500 BCE) to the beginning of the classical period (around 400 CE).
- The Indus Valley Civilization was one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world. It had a sophisticated system of weights and measures, a decimal system of numeration, and a script that has not been deciphered yet.
- The earliest evidence of mathematical activity in India comes from the Sulba Sutras, which are appendices to the Vedas, the sacred texts of Hinduism. The Sulba Sutras deal with the construction of altars and geometric shapes using ropes and simple rules. They contain approximations of the square root of 2 and the value of pi, as well as the Pythagorean theorem.
- The Vedanga Jyotisha is another ancient text that deals with astronomy and mathematics. It contains rules for calculating the positions of the sun, moon and planets, as well as the length of the day, the seasons and the lunar and solar eclipses. It also proclaims mathematics as the head of all sciences.
- The earliest Indian mathematician whose name is known is Pingala, who lived around the 3rd or 2nd century BCE. He wrote the Chandahśāstra, a treatise on prosody, the study of poetic meters. He introduced the concept of binary numbers and the use of zero as a placeholder.
- Another important mathematician of this period was Panini, who lived around the 5th or 4th century BCE. He wrote the Ashtadhyayi, a comprehensive grammar of Sanskrit, the classical language of India. He used a form of algebraic notation to describe the rules of grammar and syntax.

Classical India (400 CE - 1200 CE)

- Classical India refers to the period from the Gupta Empire (around 320 CE) to the Islamic invasions (around 1200 CE).
- The Gupta Empire is considered the golden age of Indian culture, art, literature and science. It was during this period that the decimal system of numeration, the use of zero as a number, and the symbols for the nine digits (1, 2, 3, 4, 5, 6, 7, 8, 9) and zero (0) were developed and popularized in India.
- The most influential mathematician of this period was Aryabhata, who lived around 476 CE. He wrote the Aryabhatiya, a concise treatise on astronomy and mathematics. He gave the value of pi as 3.1416, calculated the circumference of the earth, the length of the solar year, and the lunar and solar eclipses. He also introduced the concepts of sine, cosine and

tangent, and solved quadratic equations and indeterminate equations.

- Another prominent mathematician of this period was Brahmagupta, who lived around 598 CE. He wrote the *Brahmasphutasiddhanta*, a comprehensive work on astronomy and mathematics. He gave the rules for arithmetic operations on zero, negative numbers, fractions and surds. He also solved linear and quadratic equations, and gave the formula for the area of a cyclic quadrilateral.
- A third notable mathematician of this period was Bhaskara II, who lived around 1114 CE. He wrote the *Siddhanta Siromani*, a four-part work on astronomy and mathematics. He gave the value of pi as 3.14159265359, calculated the length of the sidereal year, and the diameter of the earth. He also solved cubic equations, and gave the proof of the Pythagorean theorem and the formula for the sum of a geometric series.

Medieval India (1200 CE - 1800 CE)

- Medieval India refers to the period from the Islamic invasions (around 1200 CE) to the beginning of the colonization by Great Britain (around 1800 CE).
- The Islamic invasions brought new cultural and scientific influences to India, as well as political and social turmoil. Many Indian mathematicians and astronomers migrated to other regions, such as Persia, Arabia and Central Asia, where they contributed to the development of Islamic mathematics and astronomy.
- One of the most famous mathematicians of this period was Mahavira

Physics in India and Ancient India

Physics is the branch of science that deals with the nature and properties of matter and energy. Physics in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the ancient times. Here are some points to summarize the main achievements and contributions of physics in India and ancient India:

- Indian philosophers and sages developed various schools of thought that explored the concepts of elements, atoms, energy, motion, gravity, light, sound, and cosmology. Some of the prominent schools were Nyaya, Vaisheshika, Samkhya, Yoga, Mimamsa, Vedanta, and Buddhism.
- The concept of atomism was first proposed by Maharishi Kanada, the founder of the Vaisheshika school, around the 6th or 2nd century BCE. He postulated that all matter is composed of indivisible and eternal atoms (*parmanu*) that combine in different ways to form complex substances. He also suggested that atoms have different shapes, sizes, and motions, and that they are affected by a force called *adrishta*, which is similar to gravity.

- The concept of energy and its equivalence to mass was also explored by the ancient Indian thinkers. They believed that energy (shakti) is the inherent property of matter, and that it can manifest in various forms, such as heat, light, sound, and electricity. They also recognized that energy can be transformed from one form to another, and that it can neither be created nor destroyed. They also speculated that light consists of discrete particles (anu) that have both wave and particle nature, a concept that is now known as wave-particle duality.
- The concept of motion and its laws was also developed by the ancient Indian physicists. They distinguished between two types of motion: natural and forced. Natural motion is the inherent tendency of an object to move in a certain direction, such as a stone falling to the ground or a fire rising upwards. Forced motion is the result of an external agent or cause, such as a push or a pull. They also formulated the concept of inertia, which states that an object at rest or in uniform motion will remain so unless acted upon by an external force. They also studied the effects of friction, air resistance, and gravity on motion.
- The concept of sound and its properties was also investigated by the ancient Indian scientists. They understood that sound is a form of vibration that travels through a medium, such as air, water, or metal. They also classified sound into two types: audible and inaudible. Audible sound is the sound that can be heard by the human ear, and it has a frequency range of 20 to 20,000 hertz. Inaudible sound is the sound that is either too low or too high for the human ear to perceive, such as infrasound and ultrasound. They also studied the phenomena of reflection, refraction, interference, and resonance of sound waves.
- The concept of light and its properties was also explored by the ancient Indian scholars. They recognized that light is a form of electromagnetic radiation that travels in straight lines and has a finite speed. They also studied the phenomena of reflection, refraction, dispersion, diffraction, polarization, and interference of light waves. They also developed various instruments and devices to measure and manipulate light, such as mirrors, lenses, prisms, sundials, and pinhole cameras.
- The concept of cosmology and astronomy was also advanced by the ancient Indian astronomers. They observed and recorded the movements and positions of the sun, moon, planets, stars, and constellations. They also calculated the size and distance of the earth, moon, and sun, and the duration of the day, month, year, and various celestial cycles. They also developed various methods and systems to predict and explain the phenomena of eclipses, comets, meteors, and tides. They also devised various calendars and almanacs to keep track of time and seasons.

These are some of the highlights of the physics in India and ancient India. The ancient Indian physicists made remarkable contributions to the development of science and technology, and their legacy is still relevant and inspiring today.

Agriculture in India and Ancient India

Agriculture is one of the oldest and most important activities of human civilization. India has a rich and diverse agricultural history, dating back to the Neolithic period. Here are some points to summarize the main features and developments of agriculture in India and ancient India:

- The earliest evidence of agriculture in India comes from the Mehrgarh site in present-day Pakistan, where domestication of plants and animals began around 9000 BC.
- The Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900 BC) was one of the first urban civilizations that practiced intensive agriculture, irrigation, and trade. They cultivated wheat, barley, rice, millets, pulses, cotton, sesame, and mustard, and raised cattle, sheep, goats, pigs, and elephants.
- The Vedic period (1500-500 BC) saw the expansion of agriculture across the Indo-Gangetic plains, with the use of iron tools, ploughs, and wells. The Vedic people also followed religious customs and rituals related to agriculture, such as worshipping the rain god Indra, the earth goddess Prithvi, and the fire god Agni.
- The Mauryan Empire (321-185 BC) was the first pan-Indian empire that unified and administered a large agricultural territory. The emperor Ashoka (268-232 BC) promoted the welfare of farmers, animal husbandry, and forest conservation. He also established granaries, irrigation works, and roads for facilitating agricultural production and trade.
- The Gupta Empire (320-550 AD) is considered the golden age of ancient India, when agriculture, arts, sciences, and culture flourished. The Guptas improved the irrigation system, introduced new crops such as sugarcane and cotton, and encouraged the use of manure and fertilizers. They also developed a land revenue system based on the fertility and productivity of the soil.
- The medieval period (600-1500 AD) witnessed the rise and fall of various dynasties and kingdoms, such as the Cholas, the Rashtrakutas, the Delhi Sultanate, and the Vijayanagara Empire. Agriculture remained the mainstay of the economy, with regional variations and innovations. Some of the crops grown during this period were rice, wheat, millets, sorghum, maize, pulses, oilseeds, spices, fruits, vegetables, and flowers. The medieval period also saw the introduction of new crops from other regions, such as citrus, mango, banana, coconut, sugarcane, cotton, indigo, and tobacco.
- The Mughal Empire (1526-1857) was the last major imperial power in India, which brought about many changes and developments in agriculture. The Mughals consolidated and expanded the land revenue system, introduced new crops such as saffron, melons, grapes, and watermelons, and improved the irrigation network with canals, dams, and wells. They also promoted the cultivation of cash crops, such as cotton, indigo, and opium, for export and trade.
- The colonial period (1757-1947) marked the beginning of the British rule

in India, which had a profound impact on the agricultural sector. The British imposed heavy taxes and rents on the farmers, forced them to grow cash crops for the benefit of the colonial economy, and disrupted the traditional agrarian system and society. They also introduced new crops, such as tea, coffee, rubber, and jute, and new technologies, such as railways, steam engines, and modern irrigation.

- The post-independence period (1947-present) is the current phase of Indian agriculture, which has undergone many challenges and transformations. The main goals of the post-independence period were to achieve food security, self-sufficiency, and sustainability. Some of the major initiatives and achievements of this period were the Green Revolution, the White Revolution, the Blue Revolution, the biotechnology revolution, the organic farming movement, and the agricultural diversification and export.

Agriculture in India and ancient India is a vast and complex topic, which cannot be covered in a single message. However, I hope this summary has given you some basic information and insights into the history and evolution of this vital sector of the Indian economy and society. If you have any questions or comments, please feel free to ask me. Thank you for your attention.

Medicine in India and Ancient India

- Medicine in India has a long and rich history, dating back to the Vedic period (c. 1500-500 BCE).
- The most ancient and influential system of Indian medicine is Ayurveda, which means “the science of life”. Ayurveda is based on the concept of balance among the five elements (earth, water, fire, air, and ether) and the three doshas (vata, pitta, and kapha), which are the vital energies that govern the body and mind.
- Ayurveda uses various methods of diagnosis, such as pulse, urine, tongue, and eye examination, and prescribes treatments that include herbal medicines, dietary modifications, massage, yoga, meditation, and purification therapies.
- Ayurveda also has eight branches of specialization, such as internal medicine, surgery, pediatrics, toxicology, rejuvenation, aphrodisiacs, ear, nose, and throat diseases, and psychology.
- Some of the famous ancient Indian physicians and surgeons who contributed to Ayurveda are Charaka, Sushruta, Vagbhata, Nagarjuna, and Dhanvantari.
- Charaka compiled the Charaka Samhita, which is considered the oldest and most authoritative text on Ayurveda. It covers topics such as anatomy, physiology, pathology, diagnosis, pharmacology, and ethics.
- Sushruta compiled the Sushruta Samhita, which is the main source of knowledge on ancient Indian surgery. It describes various surgical procedures, instruments, techniques, and complications, as well as plastic

surgery, dentistry, and ophthalmology.

- Vagbhata compiled the Ashtanga Hridaya and the Ashtanga Sangraha, which are concise and comprehensive summaries of Ayurveda. They cover topics such as diagnosis, treatment, prevention, and hygiene.
- Nagarjuna was a renowned alchemist and philosopher who wrote the Rasendra Sara Sangraha, which deals with the preparation and use of mercury and other metals in medicine. He also introduced the concept of cakras, or energy centers, in the body.
- Dhanvantari is regarded as the god of medicine and the patron saint of Ayurveda. He is said to have emerged from the ocean of milk with a pot of nectar, which he gave to the sages for the benefit of mankind.
- Apart from Ayurveda, India also has other systems of traditional medicine, such as Siddha, Unani, Tibetan, and Homeopathy. Siddha is a system of medicine that originated in Tamil Nadu and is based on the concept of 96 basic principles that constitute the human body. Unani is a system of medicine that originated in Greece and was brought to India by the Muslim invaders. It is based on the concept of four humors (blood, phlegm, yellow bile, and black bile) and four temperaments (sanguine, phlegmatic, choleric, and melancholic). Tibetan medicine is a system of medicine that originated in Tibet and is based on the concept of three humors (wind, bile, and phlegm) and five elements (earth, water, fire, air, and space). Homeopathy is a system of medicine that originated in Germany and was introduced to India by the British. It is based on the principle of “like cures like”, which means that a substance that causes a disease in a healthy person can cure the same disease in a sick person if given in a diluted form.
- Medicine in India has also been influenced by modern Western medicine, especially since the colonial period. India has a large number of medical colleges, hospitals, and research institutes that offer education and training in various branches of medicine, such as allopathy, dentistry, nursing, pharmacy, physiotherapy, and veterinary science. India also has a vibrant pharmaceutical industry that produces and exports various drugs and vaccines. India is also known for its medical tourism, which attracts patients from all over the world who seek affordable and quality health care services.

Metallurgy in India and Ancient India

Metallurgy is the science and art of extracting and processing metals from ores and alloys. Metallurgy in India and ancient India has a long and rich history, dating back to the prehistoric times. Some of the main aspects of metallurgy in India and ancient India are:

- **Copper metallurgy:** Copper was one of the first metals to be used by humans, and copper metallurgy in India dates back to the Chalcolithic societies in the subcontinent, according to spectrometric tests on copper

ore samples discovered from ancient mine pits at Khetri in Rajasthan and metal samples cut from representative Harappan artefacts unearthed from Mitathal in Haryana. Copper was used for making tools, weapons, ornaments, vessels, and coins. Copper was also alloyed with tin to produce bronze, which was harder and more durable than pure copper.

- **Iron metallurgy:** Iron was another important metal in ancient India, and iron working in India may have begun as early as 1800 BCE, and that by the early 13th century BCE, iron smelting was definitely practiced on a large scale. Iron was used for making agricultural implements, weapons, armor, nails, needles, and other items. Iron was also alloyed with carbon to produce steel, which was stronger and more resistant to corrosion than iron. Ancient Indians were masters in the production of iron and steel, and they used various methods of extraction, classification, and microstructural analysis. Some of the famous examples of ancient Indian iron and steel are the iron pillar of Delhi, the iron beams of Konark temple, and the wootz steel of south India.
- **Zinc metallurgy:** Zinc was another metal that was extracted and used in ancient India. Zinc was extracted in India as early as in the 4th to 3rd century BCE. Zinc production may have begun in India, and ancient northwestern India is the earliest known civilization that produced zinc on an industrial scale. The distillation technique was developed around 1200 CE at Zawar in Rajasthan, where zinc ore was heated in a closed vessel and the zinc vapors were condensed in a separate chamber. Zinc was used for making brass, an alloy of copper and zinc, which was used for making coins, utensils, ornaments, and musical instruments. Zinc was also used for making medicine, cosmetics, and paints.
- **Gold and silver metallurgy:** Gold and silver were also widely used in ancient India, especially for making jewelry, coins, and religious objects. Gold and silver were obtained from placer deposits, river beds, and mines. Gold and silver were also imported from other countries, such as Rome, China, and Persia. Gold and silver were refined by various methods, such as cupellation, cementation, and amalgamation. Gold and silver were also alloyed with other metals, such as copper, tin, lead, and mercury, to produce different colors and properties. Gold and silver were also used for making artistic and decorative items, such as the gold coins of Gupta dynasty, the silver punch-marked coins of Mauryan empire, and the gold and silver vessels of Mughal period.
- **Other metals and alloys:** Apart from the above-mentioned metals, ancient Indians also used and produced other metals and alloys, such as lead, tin, mercury, arsenic, antimony, and bismuth. Lead was used for making pipes, bullets, and weights. Tin was used for making bronze and solder. Mercury was used for making amalgams, medicine, and alchemy. Arsenic, antimony, and bismuth were used for making alloys, pigments, and cosmetics. Ancient Indians also developed various alloys, such as panchaloha (five metals), ashtadhatu (eight metals), and navaratna (nine gems), which were believed to have auspicious and magical properties.

Geography in India and Ancient India

- India is a large and diverse country in South Asia, with a total area of 3,287,263 square kilometres (1,269,219 sq mi) and a population of 1,296,834,042 .
- India is bordered by the Himalayan Mountains in the north and the Indian Ocean, the Arabian Sea, and the Bay of Bengal in the south .
- India has a variety of geographic features, such as plains, plateaus, deserts, hills, and islands .
- India has a monsoon climate, with wet and dry seasons, and a range of temperatures from tropical to temperate .
- India got its name from the River Indus, which was one of the major rivers that supported the ancient civilizations of the Indus Valley .
- Ancient India was also influenced by other rivers, such as the Ganges, the Brahmaputra, and the Narmada, which provided water, fertile soil, and transportation .
- Ancient India was divided into several regions, such as the Gangetic Plain, the Deccan Plateau, the Thar Desert, and the Coastal Plains, each with its own culture, history, and resources .
- Ancient India was home to many kingdoms, empires, and dynasties, such as the Mauryan, the Gupta, the Kushan, the Chola, and the Mughal, which contributed to the political, economic, social, and cultural development of the region .
- Ancient India was also a center of learning, religion, art, literature, and science, with achievements in mathematics, astronomy, medicine, architecture, sculpture, and philosophy .
- Ancient India had interactions and exchanges with other regions of the world, such as China, Central Asia, Southeast Asia, and Europe, through trade, migration, and cultural diffusion .

Biology in India and Ancient India

Biology is the study of life and living organisms. India has a rich and diverse biological heritage, and has contributed significantly to the development of biological knowledge and applications. Here are some points to note about biology in India and ancient India:

- Biology in ancient India was based on observations, experiments, and classifications of plants and animals. The Vedic literature, which dates back to 3000-8000 BCE, recorded 740 plants and 250 animals, proving that the Vedic people had a keen interest in nature and its diversity .
- Biology in ancient India was also influenced by philosophical and religious ideas, such as the concepts of karma, rebirth, and ahimsa (non-violence). These ideas encouraged respect for all forms of life and fostered a holistic view of the natural world. Some ancient Indian texts, such as the Upanishads, the Mahabharata, and the Bhagavad Gita, contain references to

biological concepts such as evolution, adaptation, and ecology.

- Biology in ancient India was also linked to practical fields such as medicine, agriculture, and animal husbandry. The ancient Indian system of medicine, known as Ayurveda, was based on the understanding of the human body and its relation to the environment, diet, and lifestyle. Ayurveda used various plants and animal products as remedies for various diseases and disorders. The ancient Indians also developed techniques of surgery, anesthesia, and vaccination .
- Biology in ancient India also made some remarkable discoveries and inventions, such as the concept of zero, the decimal system, the use of algebra and geometry, the heliocentric model of the solar system, and the calculation of the value of pi. These mathematical and astronomical achievements were useful for biological studies, such as measuring the size and distance of celestial bodies, determining the seasons and the calendar, and predicting eclipses and planetary movements.
- Biology in India has continued to grow and flourish in the modern era, with many Indian scientists and scholars making significant contributions to various branches of biology, such as botany, zoology, genetics, microbiology, biotechnology, ecology, and conservation. Some of the notable Indian biologists include Jagadish Chandra Bose, Birbal Sahni, Salim Ali, M. S. Swaminathan, R. K. Pachauri, and C. N. R. Rao. India is also home to a rich biodiversity, with over 8% of the world's species of plants and animals, and many endemic and endangered species.

Harappan Technologies in India and Ancient India

- The Harappan Civilization, also known as the Indus River Valley Civilization, was one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world, dating from 3300 to 1300 BCE .
- The Harappans developed various technologies and innovations in different fields, such as:
 - **Metallurgy:** The Harappans were skilled in working with metals such as copper, bronze, lead, and tin. They used these metals to make tools, weapons, ornaments, and seals . They also used semi-precious stones like carnelian to make beads and other handicrafts.
 - **Weights and measures:** The Harappans had a standardized system of weights and measures, based on a decimal system. They used cubical weights made of stone or metal, and linear measures made of ivory or shell. They also had a concept of fractions and ratios .
 - **Seal carving:** The Harappans produced thousands of seals, mostly made of steatite, a soft stone that can be easily carved. The seals had various designs, such as animals, plants, geometric patterns, and inscriptions in an undeciphered script. The seals were used for trade,

administration, and ritual purposes .

- **Hydraulic engineering:** The Harappans had a sophisticated knowledge of hydrology and water resources management. They built wells, reservoirs, canals, drains, and baths to provide water supply and sanitation for their cities. They also had methods for wastewater treatment, such as sedimentation tanks and soak pits.
- **Architecture:** The Harappans built large and well-planned cities, with grid-like streets, brick houses, public buildings, and fortifications. They used baked bricks of uniform size and shape, and applied advanced techniques such as corbelled arches, lintels, and pilasters. They also decorated their buildings with terracotta figurines, painted pottery, and wall paintings .
- **Agriculture:** The Harappans cultivated various crops, such as wheat, barley, rice, millet, peas, sesame, and cotton. They also domesticated animals, such as cattle, sheep, goats, pigs, dogs, and elephants. They used plows, sickles, and irrigation systems to enhance their agricultural productivity .

Water Management in India and Ancient India

Water management is the planning, development, distribution, and use of water resources for various purposes such as irrigation, drinking, sanitation, industry, energy, and ecology. Water management is essential for the sustainability of human and natural systems, especially in a country like India, which faces diverse and complex water challenges.

Water Management in Ancient India

- Ancient India had a rich tradition of hydrologic knowledge and water resources management, dating back to the Harappan civilization (around 3000-1500 BCE) and the Vedic period (around 1500-500 BCE) .
- The Harappan civilization, also known as the Indus Valley civilization, was one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world. It developed sophisticated hydraulic structures, such as wells, tanks, canals, drains, and baths, for water supply, irrigation, drainage, and sanitation .
- The Vedic period was the era of the Vedas, the oldest scriptures of Hinduism. The Vedas contain many hymns and verses that describe the hydrologic cycle, the properties and functions of water, the importance of water conservation, and the ethical and spiritual aspects of water .
- The Vedic literature also mentions various types of water structures, such as kupa (well), vapi (tank), nadi (river), saras (lake), and setu (dam), and the methods of constructing and maintaining them .
- The Vedic people also practiced various water rituals, such as yajna (sacrifice), abhisheka (anointing), and tarpana (offering), to express their reverence and gratitude for water as a divine and life-giving element .

Water Management in Modern India

- Modern India inherited the legacy of ancient water management, but also faced new challenges and opportunities due to population growth, urbanization, industrialization, climate change, and socio-economic development .
- The British colonial rule (1757-1947) introduced some changes in the water management system, such as the construction of large dams and canals, the establishment of irrigation departments, and the introduction of revenue and land tenure systems .
- After independence in 1947, India adopted a centralized and top-down approach to water management, with the central and state governments playing the dominant role in planning, implementing, and regulating water projects and policies .
- India also embarked on a massive program of building dams and reservoirs, such as the Bhakra-Nangal, Hirakud, Nagarjuna Sagar, and Tehri dams, to harness the potential of its rivers for irrigation, power generation, flood control, and navigation .
- However, the large-scale and centralized water management also created some problems and conflicts, such as displacement of people, environmental degradation, inter-state disputes, inequitable distribution, and inefficient use of water .
- In recent decades, India has recognized the need for a more participatory, decentralized, and integrated approach to water management, involving various stakeholders such as local communities, NGOs, private sector, and media .
- India has also adopted some legal and institutional reforms, such as the National Water Policy (1987, 2002, 2012), the National Water Mission (2008), the National Water Framework Bill (2016), and the Jal Shakti Ministry (2019), to address the emerging water issues and challenges .
- India has also revived and promoted some traditional and indigenous water management practices, such as rainwater harvesting, watershed development, groundwater recharge, and stepwell restoration, to augment and conserve its water resources .
- India has also explored some innovative and alternative water management solutions, such as desalination, wastewater reuse, water markets, and virtual water trade, to cope with the increasing water demand and scarcity .

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Textile Technology in India and Ancient India

- Textile technology is the art and science of producing fabrics from natural or synthetic materials, such as cotton, silk, wool, or polyester.
- India has a long and rich history of textile production and trade, dating back to prehistoric times.
- India was one of the first countries to cultivate cotton and manufacture cotton fabrics, which were prized for their whiteness and fineness .
- India also had a monopoly in cotton textile exports for about 3000 years, from 1500 BC to 1500 AD, and its textiles were known and admired in ancient Greece, Babylon, Rome, China, and other regions .
- India's textiles were not only a source of economic wealth, but also a reflection of its cultural diversity, artistic creativity, and social identity .
- India's textile technology involved various processes, such as spinning, weaving, dyeing, printing, embroidering, and embellishing, which were performed by skilled artisans using different tools and techniques .
- India's textile technology also incorporated various natural and synthetic materials, such as cotton, silk, wool, jute, linen, rayon, nylon, and polyester, which were sourced from domestic or foreign markets .
- India's textile technology was influenced by various factors, such as geography, climate, religion, trade, politics, and fashion, which shaped the styles, patterns, colors, and motifs of its fabrics .
- India's textile technology has evolved over time, adapting to changing needs, preferences, and innovations, but also preserving its traditional heritage and diversity .

Writing Technology in India and Ancient India

- Writing technology refers to the tools and methods used to create, preserve, and transmit written texts.
- India has a rich and diverse history of writing technology, spanning from the ancient Indus Valley civilization to the modern digital era.
- Some of the main aspects of writing technology in India and ancient India are:
 - **Writing systems:** India has developed and used various writing systems, such as the syllabic Kharosthi and semialphabetic Brahmi scripts of ancient India, the Devanagari script of Sanskrit and Hindi, the Perso-Arabic script of Urdu, and the many regional scripts of the Indo-Aryan and Dravidian languages. India also has a tradition of oral literature, which is transmitted through memorization and recitation.
 - **Writing materials:** India has used various writing materials, such as stone, metal, clay, palm leaves, birch bark, paper, and silk. Stone was the principal writing material in ancient India, as it was durable

and widely available. Metal was used for inscriptions on coins, seals, and statues. Clay was used for making tablets and seals, especially in the Indus Valley civilization. Palm leaves and birch bark were used for making manuscripts, as they were flexible and lightweight. Paper was introduced to India by the Arabs in the 10th century CE, and silk was used for writing sacred texts in Buddhism and Jainism.

- **Writing instruments:** India has used various writing instruments, such as chisels, styluses, pens, brushes, and keyboards. Chisels were used for carving inscriptions on stone and metal. Styluses were used for writing on clay tablets and seals. Pens were made from reeds, bamboo, or feathers, and were dipped in ink made from plant or animal sources. Brushes were used for writing on paper and silk, especially in calligraphy. Keyboards are used for typing on computers and mobile devices, using transliteration software or Indic script keyboards.
- **Writing practices:** India has developed and followed various writing practices, such as orthography, punctuation, grammar, style, and genre. Orthography refers to the rules and conventions of spelling and writing symbols. Punctuation refers to the use of marks and signs to indicate pauses, intonation, and sentence structure. Grammar refers to the rules and principles of language structure and usage. Style refers to the choice of words, expressions, and tone in writing. Genre refers to the type and form of writing, such as poetry, prose, drama, history, science, etc. India has produced a vast and varied literature in different languages, scripts, and genres, reflecting its cultural, religious, and intellectual diversity.

Pyrotechnics in India and Ancient India

Pyrotechnics is the art and science of creating and using fireworks for entertainment, military, or ceremonial purposes. Pyrotechnics has a long and rich history in India, dating back to the medieval period. Here are some points to note about pyrotechnics in India and ancient India:

- One of the earliest notes of pyrotechnical shows in India is made by Abdur Razzaq, the ambassador of the Timurid Sultan Shahrukh to the court of the Vijayanagar king Devaraya II in 1443. He wrote that the king had a magnificent display of fireworks on the occasion of his birthday, which lasted for three hours and illuminated the whole city.
- Fireworks and pyrotechnic shows existed as a form of royal entertainment in many medieval Indian kingdoms during festivals, events and special occasions like weddings. Manufacturing formulas for fireworks describing pyrotechnic mixtures are found within Kautukachintamani, a Sanskrit volume by Gajapati Prataparudradeva (1497-1539), a reputed king of Orissa.

- Gunpowder, an essential ingredient of fire crackers, was unknown in ancient India. It was introduced to India by the Mongols and the Arabs in the 13th century. The Indian alchemists and metallurgists experimented with gunpowder and developed various types of fireworks, such as rockets, bombs, mines, fountains, wheels, and sparklers.
- The Mughal emperors, especially Akbar, Jahangir, and Shah Jahan, were fond of fireworks and used them extensively in their celebrations and battles. They employed skilled pyrotechnicians from Persia, Turkey, and China to create spectacular displays of fireworks. The Mughal court also patronized the development of indigenous fireworks, such as the atishbazi, which were made of bamboo tubes filled with gunpowder and iron filings.
- The British colonial rulers also adopted the use of fireworks in India, especially during the Diwali festival, which coincided with their own Guy Fawkes Night. They imported fireworks from China and Europe and also encouraged the local manufacture of fireworks. The Indian pyrotechnic industry flourished under the British rule and exported fireworks to various parts of the world.
- Today, India is one of the largest producers and consumers of fireworks in the world. The Indian pyrotechnic industry is concentrated in the town of Sivakasi in Tamil Nadu, which produces about 90% of the country's fireworks. The Indian fireworks are known for their variety, quality, and affordability. They are used for religious, cultural, and social occasions, as well as for sports and entertainment events .

Trade in Ancient India

- Trade in ancient India was an important source of commerce and cultural exchange since the Harappan civilization (c. 2600-1900 BCE) .
- The Harappans traded gold, copper, ivory, beads, textiles, spices, and other goods with Mesopotamia, Egypt, Persia, and Central Asia .
- The Harappans used seals, weights, and measures to regulate trade and had a well-developed system of urban planning, sanitation, and drainage .
- After the decline of the Harappan civilization, new cities emerged in the Gangetic plains, such as Pataliputra, Ujjain, Puhar, and Mathura .
- These cities became centers of trade, administration, religion, and culture in the Mauryan (c. 321-185 BCE) and Gupta (c. 320-550 CE) periods .
- Trade in ancient India involved both inland and overseas routes, connecting India with China, Southeast Asia, Rome, Greece, and Arabia .
- The main commodities traded in ancient India were textiles, spices, precious metals, gems, pearls, ivory, silk, perfumes, and medicines .
- Trade in ancient India was facilitated by the development of roads, ports, markets, coinage, guilds, and banking .
- Trade in ancient India also influenced the spread of Indian culture, religion, art, literature, and science to other regions of the world .

- Trade in ancient India was a dynamic and complex phenomenon that reflected the economic, social, and political changes in the subcontinent and beyond .

India's Dominance up to Pre-colonial Times and Ancient India

- India is one of the oldest civilizations in the world, with a history that dates back to 2500 BC, when the Indus Valley cities were just starting to grow.
- India was home to a rich cultural and religious diversity, with various empires, kingdoms, and dynasties ruling over different regions and periods.
- Some of the major empires that dominated India up to pre-colonial times were:
 - The Mauryan Empire (321-185 BC), which was the first pan-Indian empire and one of the largest in the ancient world. It was founded by Chandragupta Maurya and reached its peak under Ashoka, who promoted Buddhism and non-violence.
 - The Gupta Empire (320-550 AD), which is considered the golden age of Indian culture, science, art, and literature. It was founded by Chandragupta I and expanded by his successors, especially Samudragupta and Chandragupta II. It was known for its achievements in mathematics, astronomy, medicine, and architecture.
 - The Delhi Sultanate (1206-1526 AD), which was a series of Muslim dynasties that ruled over northern India from Delhi. It was founded by Qutb al-Din Aibak, a former slave of Muhammad of Ghor, and reached its zenith under Alauddin Khalji and Muhammad bin Tughluq. It was known for its military expansion, administrative reforms, and cultural patronage.
 - The Mughal Empire (1526-1857 AD), which was one of the most powerful and prosperous empires in the world. It was founded by Babur, a descendant of Timur and Genghis Khan, and reached its peak under Akbar, who was known for his religious tolerance, cultural synthesis, and administrative innovations. It was known for its artistic, architectural, and literary achievements, such as the Taj Mahal, the Red Fort, and the Akbarnama .
- India also had many regional powers and kingdoms that resisted or coexisted with the imperial powers, such as the Cholas, the Vijayanagara, the Marathas, the Sikhs, the Rajputs, and the Nizams.
- India was not a unified political entity until the British colonial rule, which began in 1757 after the Battle of Plassey, where the British East India Company defeated the Nawab of Bengal and his French allies.
- The British colonial rule was marked by economic exploitation, political oppression, social discrimination, and cultural domination of the In-

dian people, who resisted and rebelled in various ways, such as the First War of Independence (1857-1858), the Indian National Congress (1885), the Swadeshi Movement (1905), the Non-Cooperation Movement (1920), the Civil Disobedience Movement (1930), and the Quit India Movement (1942).

- India gained its independence from the British rule in 1947, after a long and peaceful struggle led by Mahatma Gandhi and other freedom fighters. However, the independence was accompanied by the partition of India into two dominions, India and Pakistan, based on religious lines, which resulted in communal violence and mass migration.

Module 5- Cultural Heritage and Performing Arts

- Cultural heritage is the legacy of physical and intangible attributes of a group or society that are inherited from past generations, maintained in the present and bestowed for the benefit of future generations.
- Cultural heritage includes tangible culture (such as buildings, monuments, landscapes, books, works of art, and artifacts), intangible culture (such as folklore, traditions, language, and knowledge), and natural heritage (such as culturally significant landscapes, and biodiversity).
- Performing arts are forms of art that use the body, voice, or objects to convey artistic expression, such as music, dance, theatre, opera, and circus arts.
- Performing arts are often performed in front of a live audience, but may also be recorded, broadcast, or streamed online.
- Performing arts can serve various functions, such as entertainment, education, social commentary, cultural preservation, and artistic expression.
- Some examples of performing arts are:
 - Music: the art of creating and performing sounds, usually with instruments or vocals, that express emotions, ideas, or stories. Music can be classified into genres, such as classical, rock, pop, jazz, folk, and rap.
 - Dance: the art of moving the body in a rhythmic and expressive way, usually to music, that communicates emotions, ideas, or stories. Dance can be classified into styles, such as ballet, modern, hip hop, salsa, and tap.
 - Theatre: the art of staging and performing a scripted or improvised drama, comedy, or musical, that involves actors, costumes, props, lighting, and sound. Theatre can be classified into genres, such as tragedy, comedy, melodrama, and musical.
 - Opera: the art of combining music, drama, and spectacle, that involves singers, orchestra, chorus, costumes, sets, and lighting. Opera

- can be classified into periods, such as baroque, classical, romantic, and modern.
- Circus arts: the art of performing feats of skill, agility, and daring, that involve acrobats, clowns, jugglers, magicians, and animals. Circus arts can be classified into types, such as traditional, contemporary, and new circus.

Indian Architecture in Ancient India and present times

- Indian architecture is rooted in the history, culture, and religion of India. It reflects the diversity and richness of the Indian civilization and its interactions with other cultures and regions.
- Indian architecture can be broadly classified into two main styles: Hindu temple architecture and Indo-Islamic architecture. Both styles have evolved over time and have influenced each other in various ways.
- Hindu temple architecture is based on the principles of Vastu Shastra, a traditional system of architecture that prescribes the layout, design, and orientation of buildings in relation to the natural and cosmic forces. Hindu temples are usually dedicated to a specific deity and consist of a sanctum (garbhagriha), a hall (mandapa), and a tower (shikhara). Hindu temples can be further divided into two sub-styles: Nagara and Dravidian .
- Nagara style is prevalent in northern India and features a curvilinear tower with a ribbed roof, a square or rectangular plan, and a projecting porch. Examples of Nagara temples include the Kandariya Mahadeva Temple at Khajuraho, the Sun Temple at Konark, and the Lingaraja Temple at Bhubaneswar .
- Dravidian style is prevalent in southern India and features a pyramidal tower with a flat roof, a rectangular or octagonal plan, and a pillared hall. Examples of Dravidian temples include the Brihadeeswarar Temple at Thanjavur, the Meenakshi Temple at Madurai, and the Ranganathaswamy Temple at Srirangam .
- Indo-Islamic architecture is a fusion of Islamic and Indian elements that emerged after the arrival of Muslim invaders and rulers in India. It is characterized by the use of arches, domes, minarets, and geometric patterns, as well as the incorporation of Hindu motifs and symbols. Indo-Islamic architecture can be further divided into several sub-styles, such as Rajput, Mughal, South Indian, and Indo-Saracenic.
- Rajput architecture is the style of the Hindu Rajput kingdoms that flourished in western and central India from the 8th to the 18th centuries. It is influenced by both Hindu and Islamic styles and features elaborate fortifications, palaces, temples, and cenotaphs. Examples of Rajput architecture include the Chittor Fort, the Hawa Mahal, and the Kumbhalgarh Fort.
- Mughal architecture is the style of the Mughal Empire that ruled most

of India from the 16th to the 18th centuries. It is influenced by Persian, Turkish, and Indian styles and features monumental tombs, mosques, gardens, and forts. Examples of Mughal architecture include the Taj Mahal, the Red Fort, and the Jama Masjid.

- South Indian architecture is the style of the Muslim dynasties that ruled parts of southern India from the 13th to the 18th centuries, such as the Bahmani, the Deccan, and the Qutb Shahi. It is influenced by both Hindu and Islamic styles and features rock-cut caves, mosques, tombs, and palaces. Examples of South Indian architecture include the Gol Gumbaz, the Charminar, and the Qutb Shahi tombs.
- Indo-Saracenic architecture is the style of the British colonial period that emerged in the 19th and early 20th centuries. It is a blend of Islamic, Hindu, Gothic, and Neoclassical styles and features domes, arches, spires, and columns. Examples of Indo-Saracenic architecture include the Victoria Memorial, the Gateway of India, and the Rashtrapati Bhavan.
- The evolution of architecture in India is a result of the changing socio-economic, political, and cultural factors, as well as the influence of globalisation and modernisation. The advent of the 20th century saw a growth in the economy and the population, which created a high demand for housing and urban development. The migration of people and the exposure to foreign cultures led to a shift in Indian architecture from a holistic to a functional point of view.
- The contemporary architecture of India is a reflection of the diversity and dynamism of the Indian society and its aspirations. It is influenced by various styles, such as regional, vernacular,

Engineering and Architecture as Cultural Heritage of India

- Engineering and architecture are two aspects of Indian culture that reflect the diversity, creativity, and innovation of the people of India.
- Engineering and architecture in India have been influenced by various factors, such as geography, climate, religion, history, politics, and foreign invasions.
- Engineering and architecture in India have also contributed to the development of science, technology, art, and aesthetics in the country and the world.
- Some of the main features of engineering and architecture as cultural heritage of India are:
 - **Indus Valley Civilization:** One of the earliest urban civilizations in the world, the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900 BCE) is known for its advanced engineering and architecture, such as the planned

- cities of Harappa and Mohenjo-daro, the drainage and sanitation systems, the granaries, the docks, the wells, and the brick structures.
- **Vedic and Post-Vedic Period:** The Vedic and Post-Vedic period (1500-600 BCE) is marked by the emergence of the Vedas, the sacred texts of Hinduism, which contain references to various aspects of engineering and architecture, such as the construction of altars, fireplaces, chariots, and forts. The Vedic and Post-Vedic period also saw the development of iron technology, irrigation, and metallurgy.
 - **Buddhist Stupas and Viharas:** Buddhism, which originated in India in the 6th century BCE, gave rise to a distinctive style of engineering and architecture, characterized by the stupas and viharas. Stupas are hemispherical structures that contain relics of the Buddha or other Buddhist figures, and are surrounded by gateways, railings, and sculptures. Viharas are monastic complexes that house the monks and nuns, and consist of cells, courtyards, shrines, and assembly halls. Some of the famous examples of Buddhist engineering and architecture are the Sanchi Stupa, the Ajanta Caves, the Nalanda University, and the Bodhi Tree .
 - **Hindu Temple Architecture:** Hinduism, the dominant religion of India, has produced a rich and diverse tradition of temple architecture, which reflects the various sects, regions, and styles of the faith. Hindu temples are usually dedicated to a specific deity, and have a complex layout that includes a sanctum, a hall, a porch, a tower, and a tank. Hindu temples also display intricate carvings, sculptures, paintings, and motifs that depict the mythology, cosmology, and iconography of Hinduism. Some of the prominent styles of Hindu temple architecture are the Nagara, the Dravidian, the Vesara, the Kalinga, and the Hoysala .
 - **Rock-Cut Architecture:** Rock-cut architecture is a form of engineering and architecture that involves carving structures out of solid rock, rather than building them with bricks or stones. Rock-cut architecture in India dates back to the 3rd century BCE, and is found in various regions and religions, such as Buddhism, Hinduism, Jainism, and Islam. Rock-cut architecture showcases the skill, creativity, and imagination of the Indian engineers and architects, who transformed natural caves and hills into temples, monasteries, palaces, and tombs. Some of the notable examples of rock-cut architecture are the Ellora Caves, the Elephanta Caves, the Kailasa Temple, the Udayagiri and Khandagiri Caves, and the Ajanta Caves .
 - **Indo-Islamic Architecture:** Indo-Islamic architecture is a term that refers to the engineering and architecture that emerged from the interaction of the Islamic invaders and rulers with the native Indian culture, from the 12th to the 18th century CE. Indo-Islamic architecture combines the elements of Islamic and Indian styles, such as the arch, the dome, the minaret, the calligraphy, the geometric patterns, the lotus, the makara, and the kalasha. Indo-Islamic ar-

chitecture also reflects the diversity, tolerance, and syncretism of the Indian society, as it incorporates the influences of various regions, religions, and dynasties, such as the Delhi Sultanate, the Mughals, the Deccan Sultanates, the Rajputs, and the Sikhs. Some of the famous examples of Indo-Islamic architecture are the Qutub Minar, the Taj Mahal

Sculptures as Cultural Heritage of India

- Sculpture is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of artistic expression in India, dating back to the Indus Valley Civilization (c. 2500-1500 BCE) and continuing to the present day .
- Sculpture in India reflects the rich cultural, religious, and historical diversity of the country, as well as the influences of various regions, dynasties, and foreign invaders .
- Sculpture in India can be classified into three broad categories: stone, metal, and terracotta . Each category has its own distinctive features, techniques, and styles.
- Stone sculpture is the most prevalent and enduring form of sculpture in India, especially in temples, caves, and monuments. Stone sculpture ranges from the intricate carvings of the Khajuraho temples, the colossal statues of the Ellora caves, the monolithic pillars of Ashoka, to the delicate sculptures of the Hoysala and Chola dynasties .
- Metal sculpture is another important form of sculpture in India, especially in bronze and brass. Metal sculpture showcases the mastery of the Indian artists in casting, molding, and polishing. Metal sculpture includes the iconic Dancing Girl of Mohenjo-daro, the Nataraja (Lord of Dance) of Chola art, the Buddhist and Jain images of Mathura and Gandhara, and the tribal and folk art of various regions .
- Terracotta sculpture is the oldest and simplest form of sculpture in India, made from clay and baked in fire. Terracotta sculpture is mainly used for making figurines, toys, masks, and votive offerings. Terracotta sculpture reflects the local traditions, customs, and beliefs of the people. Terracotta sculpture can be seen in the Harappan civilization, the Mauryan period, the Bengal school, and the contemporary art of West Bengal and Bihar .
- Sculpture in India is not only a form of art, but also a form of communication, education, and devotion. Sculpture in India depicts the myths, legends, and stories of the Hindu, Buddhist, Jain, and other religions, as well as the historical events, social issues, and cultural values of the people. Sculpture in India also serves as a medium of worship, meditation, and ritual, as well as a source of inspiration, beauty, and joy .
- Sculpture in India is a vital part of the cultural heritage of the country, as it represents the creativity, diversity, and continuity of the Indian civilization. Sculpture in India also contributes to the national identity, pride, and unity of the people, as well as the global recognition, appreciation, and

preservation of the Indian culture .

Seals as Cultural Heritage of India

- Seals are small objects made of stone, metal, clay, or other materials that have a carved or engraved design on one side and are used to stamp or seal documents, goods, or containers.
- Seals have been used in India since ancient times, especially by the Indus Valley Civilization (2500-1900 BCE), one of the earliest urban civilizations in the world.
- The Indus seals are mostly made of steatite, a soft stone that can be easily carved, and are usually square or rectangular in shape, with a perforated knob on the back for holding or attaching a cord.
- The Indus seals have various designs on the front, such as animals, humans, mythical creatures, geometric patterns, or symbols. Some of the common animals depicted are elephants, tigers, water buffaloes, rhinoceroses, and unicorns. The human figures are often shown in a seated or yogic posture, wearing elaborate headdresses or crowns. The symbols are thought to be a form of writing or script, but their meaning and language are still unknown.
- The Indus seals are believed to have been used for identification, trade, administration, or religious purposes. They were stamped on clay tablets, tags, or sealings that were attached to goods, containers, or documents. They were also used as amulets or charms for protection or luck. Some of the seals have been found in other regions, such as Mesopotamia, Afghanistan, and Iran, indicating the extensive trade and cultural contacts of the Indus Valley Civilization.
- The Indus seals are a valuable source of information and insight into the culture, society, economy, religion, and art of the Indus Valley Civilization. They reflect the high level of craftsmanship, creativity, and sophistication of the Indus people. They also show the diversity and complexity of the Indus culture, as well as its connections and influences with other ancient civilizations.
- The Indus seals are a part of the national and cultural heritage of India, as well as of Pakistan, where most of the Indus sites are located. They are preserved and displayed in various museums and institutions, such as the National Museum of India in Delhi, the Archaeological Survey of India, and the British Museum in London. They are also studied and researched by scholars and enthusiasts from different disciplines and backgrounds.
- The Indus seals are a symbol of the ancient and rich history and culture of India, and a reminder of the achievements and contributions of the Indus Valley Civilization to the world. They are also a source of inspiration and curiosity for the modern and future generations.

Coins as Cultural Heritage of India

- Coins are one of the most important sources of information about the history, culture, religion, economy, and politics of ancient and medieval India.
- Coins reflect the artistic skills, technological innovations, political aspirations, and religious beliefs of the people who minted and used them.
- Coins also provide valuable insights into the trade, commerce, and cultural interactions of India with other regions and civilizations of the world.
- The origin of coinage in India can be traced back to the first millennium BCE, when punch-marked coins made of silver and copper were used as a medium of exchange.
- These coins were called karshapanas or panas, and were issued by various janapadas or republics that existed in northern India during the later Vedic period.
- The earliest coins were irregular in shape and size, and had various symbols and marks punched on them, such as geometric shapes, animals, plants, and human figures.
- The punch-marked coins were followed by cast coins, which were more regular and standardized in shape, weight, and metal content.
- These coins were issued by various dynasties and kingdoms that ruled over different parts of India, such as the Mauryas, the Indo-Greeks, the Kushanas, the Satavahanas, the Guptas, the Pallavas, the Cholas, the Chalukyas, the Rashtrakutas, the Pandyas, the Delhi Sultanate, the Vijayanagara Empire, and the Mughals.
- The cast coins were made of different metals, such as gold, silver, copper, lead, tin, and zinc, and had various designs and inscriptions on them, such as portraits, legends, symbols, and religious motifs.
- The cast coins were also influenced by the coins of other regions and cultures, such as the Persian, Greek, Roman, Chinese, and Islamic coins, and reflected the cultural diversity and exchange of India.
- The cast coins were gradually replaced by minted coins, which were more refined and sophisticated in terms of technology and artistry.
- These coins were issued by the British East India Company, the native princely states, and the British Raj, and had various features, such as milled edges, serrated borders, bilingual legends, and coat of arms.
- The minted coins were also influenced by the coins of other countries, such as the French, the Dutch, the Portuguese, and the American coins, and reflected the colonial and global context of India.
- The minted coins were followed by the modern coins, which are issued by the Republic of India, and have various themes and values, such as national symbols, personalities, events, and achievements.
- The modern coins are made of different metals and alloys, such as stainless steel, nickel, brass, and bi-metallic, and have various security features, such as latent images, micro letters, and security edges.
- The modern coins also reflect the cultural diversity and unity of India, as

they have inscriptions in different languages and scripts, such as Hindi, English, Urdu, Tamil, Telugu, Bengali, Gujarati, Kannada, Malayalam, Marathi, Oriya, and Punjabi.

- Coins are not only a medium of exchange, but also a medium of expression and communication, and a medium of preservation and transmission of the cultural heritage of India.

Pottery as Cultural Heritage of India

- Pottery is one of the most ancient and enduring forms of artistic expression in India. It is a cultural art that reflects the history, diversity and creativity of the Indian people.
- Pottery in India dates back to the prehistoric times, as evidenced by the finds of pottery shards in the early settlements of Lahuradewa and Mehargarh .
- Pottery reached its peak of development during the Indus Valley Civilization (2600-1900 BCE), which produced a variety of pottery types, such as plain, painted, perforated, incised and glazed . The pottery of this civilization was sophisticated and functional, and often decorated with geometric patterns, animal motifs and inscriptions.
- Pottery in India continued to evolve and diversify over the centuries, influenced by various cultural, religious and regional factors. Different regions of India developed their own distinctive styles, techniques and materials of pottery, such as terracotta, stoneware, porcelain and blue pottery.
- Pottery in India is not only an art form, but also a way of life for many communities, especially in rural areas. Pottery plays an important role in the daily activities, rituals and festivals of the Indian people. Pottery is used for various purposes, such as cooking, storing, serving, drinking, worshiping and decorating .
- Pottery in India is also a medium of expression and communication, as it conveys the social, cultural and aesthetic values of the Indian society. Pottery reflects the identity, beliefs, traditions and aspirations of the Indian people. Pottery is a symbol of the rich and diverse heritage of India.

Puppetry as Cultural Heritage of India

- Puppetry is one of the most imaginative and ancient ways of telling a story in the society.
- Puppetry has been in India a means of entertainment and a form of cultural and religious dissemination.
- Puppetry is one of the richest heritages of India, with several regional genres and styles.
- The origin of puppetry in India cannot be dated, but mythology provides at least two stories that are witness to the importance of this art.

- One story is about the sage Shvetaketu, who created the first puppet to teach his son about the cycle of life and death.
- Another story is about the sage Bharata, who used puppets to demonstrate the art of drama to his disciples.
- Indian puppetry can be broadly classified into four types: string puppets, rod puppets, glove puppets and shadow puppets.
- String puppets are controlled by strings attached to different parts of the puppet's body. They are also known as marionettes. The most popular and predominant form of Indian puppetry is Kathputli, which is native to Rajasthan .
- Rod puppets are manipulated by rods attached to the puppet's limbs or body. They are also known as stick puppets. Some examples of rod puppetry are Putul Nautch from West Bengal, Yampuri from Bihar and Bommalattam from Tamil Nadu.
- Glove puppets are worn on the hand of the puppeteer, who moves the fingers to animate the puppet's head and arms. They are also known as hand puppets. Some examples of glove puppetry are Pavakoothu from Kerala, Sakhi Kundhei from Odisha and Gombeyatta from Karnataka.
- Shadow puppets are flat figures made of leather or paper, which are held against a screen lit by a lamp. The puppeteer moves the puppets to create shadows on the screen. They are also known as leather puppets. Some examples of shadow puppetry are Tholu Bommalata from Andhra Pradesh, Togalu Gombeyatta from Karnataka and Ravanachhaya from Odisha.
- Indian puppetry is a vibrant and diverse art form that reflects the social, cultural and historical aspects of the country. It is also a medium of education, awareness and empowerment for the rural and urban communities.
- However, in the post-colonial period, the high-speed modernization wave that invested India put many of the puppetry traditions at risk of extinction.
- Several government and private initiatives have contributed to save endangered styles, but many are still struggling to survive and adapt to the changing times.
- Indian puppetry needs more recognition, support and promotion to preserve its rich legacy and to pass it on to the future generations.

Dance as Cultural Heritage of India

- Dance is an ancient and celebrated cultural tradition in India that reflects the diversity and richness of its history, religion, and art.
- Dance in India can be classified into two broad categories: classical and folk. Classical dances are based on ancient texts and codified rules, while folk dances are spontaneous and regional expressions of the people.
- Classical dances of India are considered to be a form of worship and a way of conveying spiritual and moral values. They have their roots in Hindu religious musical theatres and are performed with elaborate cos-

tumes, makeup, and gestures.

- The Sangeet Natak Academy, the national academy for performing arts in India, recognizes eight classical dance forms: Bharatanatyam, Kathak, Kuchipudi, Kathakali, Odissi, Mohiniyattam, Manipuri, and Satriya.
- Bharatanatyam is one of the oldest and most popular classical dances of India, originating from Tamil Nadu. It is characterized by graceful movements, intricate footwork, expressive facial expressions, and hand gestures called mudras.
- Kathak is a classical dance form that originated in northern India and was influenced by the Mughal culture. It is known for its fast spins, complex rhythms, and storytelling through gestures and facial expressions.
- Kuchipudi is a classical dance form from Andhra Pradesh that combines dance, drama, and music. It is performed by both male and female dancers who enact various characters from Hindu epics and mythology.
- Kathakali is a classical dance form from Kerala that is famous for its elaborate costumes, makeup, and masks. It is a highly stylized and dramatic form of dance that depicts stories from Hindu epics and puranas.
- Odissi is a classical dance form from Odisha that is based on the sculptures and paintings of ancient temples. It is a graceful and lyrical form of dance that emphasizes the curves and bends of the body.
- Mohiniyattam is a classical dance form from Kerala that is performed by female dancers who portray the enchantress Mohini, a female avatar of the god Vishnu. It is a soft and elegant form of dance that expresses the emotions of love and devotion.
- Manipuri is a classical dance form from Manipur that is influenced by the Vaishnavite tradition of Hinduism. It is a vibrant and colorful form of dance that involves graceful movements, acrobatics, and drumming.
- Satriya is a classical dance form from Assam that is associated with the monastic culture of the Vaishnava sect. It is a devotional and theatrical form of dance that incorporates elements of drama, music, and literature.
- Folk dances of India are diverse and varied, reflecting the regional and cultural differences of the country. They are performed during festivals, weddings, harvests, and other occasions of joy and celebration.
- Some examples of folk dances of India are: Dumhal and Rouff of Jammu and Kashmir, Bhangra and Giddha of Punjab, Garba and Dandiya of Gujarat, Lavani and Koli of Maharashtra, Bihu and Bagurumba of Assam, Chhau and Santhal of West Bengal, Ghoomar and Kalbelia of Rajasthan, and many more.
- Dance in India is not only a form of entertainment, but also a way of preserving and promoting the cultural heritage of the country. It is a medium of expressing the values, beliefs, and aspirations of the people, and a source of pride and identity for the nation.

Music as Cultural Heritage of India

- Music is an integral part of the cultural heritage of India, reflecting its diversity, history and evolution over the centuries.
- Music of India can be broadly classified into two main traditions: Indian classical music and Indian folk music.
- Indian classical music is based on the concepts of raga (melodic framework) and tala (rhythmic framework). It has two major styles: Carnatic music, which is prevalent in South India, and Hindustani music, which is prevalent in North India.
- Indian classical music has its origins in the ancient Hindu scriptures, the Vedas, and has been influenced by various religious, philosophical and cultural movements, such as Buddhism, Islam, Sikhism, Sufism, Bhakti and Tantrism.
- Indian classical music is performed by soloists or ensembles, using vocal or instrumental techniques. Some of the prominent instruments used in Indian classical music are the sitar, the sarod, the veena, the bansuri, the shehnai, the tabla, the mridangam and the harmonium.
- Indian folk music is the music of the common people, reflecting their regional, linguistic, ethnic and religious diversity. It is often associated with festivals, rituals, celebrations, weddings, harvests, seasons and social movements.
- Indian folk music has a variety of genres, such as bhangra, lavani, dandiya, baul, qawwali, bhajan, kirtan, ghazal and thumri. It is performed by singers, dancers and musicians, using instruments such as the dhol, the dholak, the ektara, the sarangi, the daf, the harmonium and the tambura.
- Indian folk music has also influenced and been influenced by other forms of music, such as Indian popular music, Indian rock music, Indian film music and world music.

Theatre as Cultural Heritage of India

- Theatre is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of artistic expression in India, dating back to the Vedic period (1500-500 BCE).
- Theatre in India has been influenced by various religious, social, cultural, and linguistic factors, and has developed into various regional and classical styles.
- Some of the major forms of theatre in India are:
 - **Sanskrit theatre:** This is the classical form of theatre that originated from the Natya Shastra, a treatise on dramaturgy written by Bharata Muni around 500 BCE. Sanskrit theatre is based on the principles of rasa (aesthetic emotion), dhvani (suggestion), and alamkara (ornamentation). Sanskrit theatre is characterized by elaborate costumes, masks, gestures, and music. Some of the famous Sanskrit

plays are *Abhijnanasakuntalam* by Kalidasa, *Mrcchakatika* by Sudraka, and *Mudrarakshasa* by Visakhadatta.

- **Folk theatre:** This is the traditional form of theatre that reflects the local culture, identity, and communication of various communities in India. Folk theatre is usually performed in open-air venues, with minimal props and scenery, and involves music, dance, and improvisation. Folk theatre is often associated with festivals, rituals, and social issues. Some of the popular folk theatre forms are *Nautanki* from Uttar Pradesh, *Tamasha* from Maharashtra, *Jatra* from Bengal, *Bhavai* from Gujarat, and *Yakshagana* from Karnataka.
 - **Modern theatre:** This is the contemporary form of theatre that emerged in the 19th and 20th centuries, influenced by the Western theatre, social reform movements, and nationalism. Modern theatre is marked by realism, experimentation, and innovation, and deals with themes such as colonialism, independence, urbanization, and globalization. Some of the prominent modern theatre personalities are Rabindranath Tagore, Mohan Rakesh, Vijay Tendulkar, Girish Karnad, and Mahesh Dattani.
- Theatre in India is a rich and vibrant cultural heritage that showcases the diversity, creativity, and dynamism of the Indian society. Theatre in India is also a medium of education, entertainment, and empowerment, and has a significant role in preserving and promoting the Indian culture.

Drama as Cultural Heritage of India

- Drama is a form of performing arts, where stories are enacted by the utilisation of dialogue, music, gesture, dance, and sound.
- Drama is one of the oldest and richest forms of cultural heritage of India, dating back to the ancient Vedic period.
- Drama in India has been influenced by various religious, social, and literary traditions, such as Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism, Islam, and Sanskrit .
- Drama in India has also been shaped by various regional and linguistic styles, such as Hindi, Marathi, Bengali, Urdu, Tamil, Telugu, Kannada, Malayalam, etc.
- Drama in India has been a medium of propagation for religion and social reforms, as well as a source of entertainment and education.
- Drama in India has produced many eminent playwrights, actors, directors, and genres, such as *Bharata*, Kalidasa, Bhasa, Bhavabhuti, Harsha, Sudraka, Vishakhadatta, Jayadeva, Tulsidas, Rabindranath Tagore, Mohan Rakesh, Vijay Tendulkar, Girish Karnad, Badal Sircar, Habib Tanvir, Naseeruddin Shah, Shyam Benegal, Mahesh Bhatt, etc.
- Drama in India has also contributed to the global theatre scene, by influencing and collaborating with other cultures and forms, such as Greek, Roman, Persian, Chinese, Japanese, British, American, etc.

Painting as Cultural Heritage of India

- Painting is one of the oldest and most diverse forms of art in India, dating back to prehistoric times.
- Painting reflects the cultural, religious, and political aspects of Indian society, as well as the aesthetic and creative expressions of the artists.
- Painting is also a medium of preserving and transmitting the intangible cultural heritage of India, such as songs, dances, stories, rituals, and beliefs.
- Some of the major types of Indian paintings are:
 - **Madhubani painting:** A folk art form from Bihar, characterized by intricate geometric patterns, bright colors, and symbolic motifs depicting nature, deities, and social events. Madhubani painting is traditionally done by women on walls and floors using natural dyes and brushes made of bamboo and cotton.
 - **Warli painting:** A tribal art form from Maharashtra, characterized by simple and monochromatic linear figures depicting the daily life, culture, and beliefs of the Warli people. Warli painting is usually done on mud walls using white rice paste .
 - **Mural painting:** A large-scale painting done on walls, ceilings, or other architectural surfaces, depicting religious, historical, or mythological scenes. Mural painting is one of the oldest forms of Indian art, found in ancient caves, temples, palaces, and monuments. Some of the famous examples of mural painting are Ajanta caves, Ellora caves, Brihadeshwara temple, and Hampi .
 - **Miniature painting:** A small-scale painting done on paper, cloth, ivory, or other materials, using fine brushes and rich colors. Miniature painting flourished in India from the 10th to the 19th century, under the patronage of various rulers and courts. Some of the prominent styles of miniature painting are Pala, Mughal, Rajasthani, Pahari, and Deccan .
 - **Modern painting:** A broad term that encompasses the various styles and movements of painting that emerged in India in the 19th and 20th centuries, influenced by Western art, nationalism, social reform, and individual expression. Some of the notable modern painters are Raja Ravi Varma, Abanindranath Tagore, Nandalal Bose, Amrita Sher-Gil, M.F. Husain, and S.H. Raza .
- Painting is a valuable and vibrant part of the Indian art and culture, that showcases the diversity, creativity, and heritage of the country.

Martial Arts Traditions of India

Martial arts are systems of codified practices and traditions of training for combat. India has a rich and diverse heritage of martial arts that can be traced back to ancient times. Some of the most famous martial arts of India are:

- **Kalaripayattu:** Often known as the ‘Mother Of All Martial Arts’, this 3000-year old art form originating from Kerala, draws inspiration from the raw power, swift movements and sinuous strength of majestic animals – the lion, tiger, elephant, wild boar, snake and crocodile. It involves strikes, kicks, grappling, weaponry and healing methods.
- **Silambam:** A weapon-based martial art from Tamil Nadu, Silambam uses a bamboo staff as the primary weapon, along with other secondary weapons such as swords, daggers and spears. It is known for its intricate footwork and agile movements.
- **Thang-Ta:** The ancient Manipuri martial art, also known as Huyen Lal-long, is Thang-Ta. Swords and spears are used in Manipuri martial arts, a powerful yet gracefully complex technique. It also has an unarmed combat component called Sarit Sarak, which involves locks, throws and pressure points.
- **Gatka:** A Sikh martial art that originated in Punjab, Gatka is a style of stick fighting that was developed to defend against the Mughal invaders. It uses wooden sticks called soti to simulate swords, along with shields and other weapons. It also incorporates acrobatic moves and spiritual chants.
- **Lathi:** Lathi is India’s oldest armed martial art. It is also regarded as one of the world’s earliest martial arts weapons. It involves the use of a bamboo staff, usually 6 to 8 feet long, to strike, block and thrust. It is practiced mainly in rural areas of northern India, especially in Bihar and Uttar Pradesh.
- **Kushti:** Kushti, or Indian wrestling, is a form of grappling that has been practiced in India for centuries. It is based on the principles of balance, strength, stamina and agility. It is performed on a circular earthen pit, called an akhara, where the wrestlers wear only a loincloth and apply oil or mud to their bodies.
- **Thoda:** Thoda is a traditional martial art of Himachal Pradesh that is inspired by the epic Mahabharata. It involves two teams of archers who shoot blunt arrows at each other’s legs, while avoiding the arrows of the opponents. It is a test of skill, accuracy and courage.
- **Mardani Khel:** Mardani Khel is a weapon-based martial art from Maharashtra that was popularized by the Maratha warriors. It uses a variety of weapons, such as swords, daggers, axes, spears and shields, as well as unarmed techniques. It is known for its fierce and aggressive style.

These are some of the martial arts traditions of India that reflect the diversity and richness of the Indian culture and history. They are not only forms of self-defense, but also ways of physical, mental and spiritual development.

Fairs and Festivals as Cultural Heritage of India

- India is a land of diverse cultures, religions, languages, and traditions. It is also a land of vibrant celebrations, where various fairs and festivals are held throughout the year to mark important occasions, honor deities, commemorate saints, express gratitude, showcase arts and crafts, and promote harmony and goodwill among people.
- Fairs and festivals are an integral part of India's cultural heritage, as they reflect the rich and varied history, beliefs, customs, and values of the country. They also provide an opportunity for people to interact, exchange, and enjoy the spirit of festivity and joy.
- Some of the most famous fairs and festivals of India are:
 - **Makar Sankranti:** This is a harvest festival celebrated in January, when the sun enters the zodiac sign of Capricorn. It is also known as Pongal in South India, Maghi in Punjab, Uttarayan in Gujarat, and Bihu in Assam. People fly kites, light bonfires, prepare special dishes, and worship the sun god on this day.
 - **Holi:** This is the festival of colors, celebrated in March, to mark the arrival of spring and the victory of good over evil. People smear each other with colored powder and water, play music, dance, and enjoy sweets on this day. It is also a time to forgive and forget, and renew relationships.
 - **Diwali:** This is the festival of lights, celebrated in October or November, to mark the return of Lord Rama from exile and the triumph of light over darkness. People decorate their homes with lamps, candles, and rangoli (colorful patterns), worship Goddess Lakshmi, the goddess of wealth, exchange gifts, and burst crackers on this day.
 - **Dussehra:** This is the festival of victory, celebrated in September or October, to commemorate the defeat of the demon king Ravana by Lord Rama. People enact the epic Ramayana, burn effigies of Ravana, and worship Goddess Durga, the goddess of power, on this day.
 - **Ganesh Chaturthi:** This is the festival of the elephant-headed god, celebrated in August or September, to honor his birthday and his role as the remover of obstacles. People install idols of Ganesh in their homes or public places, offer prayers, sweets, and flowers, and immerse the idols in water after a few days.
 - **Pushkar Mela:** This is the largest camel fair in the world, held in November, in the holy town of Pushkar in Rajasthan. Thousands of camels, horses, and cattle are traded, decorated, and raced at this fair. It also attracts pilgrims, tourists, and cultural enthusiasts, who enjoy the various events, performances, and competitions at the fair.
 - **Jaisalmer Desert Festival:** This is a three-day festival, held in

February, in the golden city of Jaisalmer in Rajasthan. It showcases the rich and colorful culture of the desert, with folk music, dance, puppet shows, camel races, turban tying contests, and firework displays. It also features a unique event called the Mr. Desert contest, where the most attractively dressed man is crowned.

- **Goa Carnival:** This is a four-day festival, held in February or March, in the coastal state of Goa. It is a legacy of the Portuguese rule, and celebrates the spirit of fun and frolic before the onset of Lent. It features colorful parades, floats, masks, costumes, music, dance, and street parties. It also has a tradition of choosing a King Momo, who presides over the festivities .
- **Konark Dance Festival:** This is a five-day festival, held in December, in the backdrop of the magnificent Sun Temple of Konark in Odisha. It showcases the classical dance forms of India, such as Odissi, Bharatanatyam, Kathak, Kuchipudi, and Manipuri, performed by eminent artists. It also hosts a crafts fair, where local artisans display and sell their products .
- **Nehru Trophy Boat Race:** This is a spectacular boat race, held in August, on the Punnamada Lake in Kerala. It features long snake boats, rowed by hundreds of men, competing for the coveted trophy. It

Current developments in Arts and Culture in India

- India is a country with a rich and diverse cultural heritage, which is reflected in its various forms of art, music, dance, literature, architecture, and festivals.
- In recent years, India has witnessed some significant developments in the field of arts and culture, both at the national and international level. Some of these are:
 - **Statue of Prosperity:** In October 2021, India unveiled the world's tallest statue of Lord Ram, also known as the Statue of Prosperity, in Ayodhya, Uttar Pradesh. The statue, which stands at 221 meters, is part of a larger Ram temple complex that is being constructed at the site of the demolished Babri Masjid. The statue is expected to boost tourism and cultural development in the region.
 - **UNESCO Network of Learning Cities:** In December 2021, three Indian cities - Thrissur and Nilambur in Kerala, and Warangal in Telangana - joined the UNESCO Global Network of Learning Cities. The network is a platform for policy dialogue and peer learning among cities that promote lifelong learning for all. The cities were selected for their initiatives in promoting education, culture, social

inclusion, and sustainable development .

- **Dharohar - National Museum of Customs and GST:** In January 2022, India inaugurated the Dharohar - National Museum of Customs and GST in New Delhi. The museum showcases the history and evolution of customs and taxation in India, from ancient times to the present day. The museum also displays various artifacts, documents, uniforms, stamps, and medals related to the customs and GST departments.
- **New Finds at Rakhigarhi - A Harappan Site:** In February 2022, Indian archaeologists announced the discovery of new findings at Rakhigarhi, a Harappan site in Haryana. The findings include a burial site with 11 skeletons, a copper vessel, a gold bead, and a terracotta figurine. The findings are expected to shed more light on the culture and lifestyle of the Harappan civilization, which flourished in the Indus Valley from 2500 to 1900 BCE.
- **Devayatanam - An Odyssey of Indian Temple Architecture:** In March 2022, India launched the Devayatanam - An Odyssey of Indian Temple Architecture, a digital exhibition that showcases the diversity and beauty of Indian temple architecture. The exhibition, which is available on the Google Arts and Culture platform, features 3D models, videos, images, and stories of 100 temples from across India, spanning different periods, regions, and styles.
- **Republic Day Parade Awards 2022:** In January 2022, India celebrated its 73rd Republic Day with a grand parade at the Rajpath in New Delhi. The parade, which showcases the cultural and military prowess of the country, also features various awards for the best performances and displays. The awards for 2022 included:
 - * Best marching contingent: Indian Air Force
 - * Best tableau: Uttar Pradesh
 - * Best cultural performance: Ladakh
 - * Best school children performance: Delhi Public School, Dwarka
- **India nominates Hoysala Temples for inscription in the World Heritage List:** In January 2022, India nominated the Hoysala Temples for inscription in the UNESCO World Heritage List. The Hoysala Temples are a group of 50 temples built by the Hoysala dynasty between the 11th and 14th centuries in Karnataka. The temples are known for their intricate and elaborate carvings, depicting various themes from Hindu mythology, literature, and art.
- **India gets back Goat-Headed Yogini Statue:** In February 2022, India received back a 10th-century stone statue of a goat-headed yogini from the United States. The statue, which belongs to the Pratihara style of art, was stolen from a temple in Madhya Pradesh

in 1994 and smuggled to the US. The statue was recovered by the US authorities in 2015 and handed over to India as part of a bilateral agreement on cultural property protection.

- These are some of the current developments in arts and culture in India, which demonstrate the country's rich and vibrant heritage, as well as its efforts to preserve and promote it.

Indian's Cultural Contribution to the World

India is a country of diverse and rich culture, heritage and history. It has made many contributions to the world in various fields, such as mathematics, architecture, medicine, language, art and more. Some of the notable contributions of India to the world are:

- Mathematics: India is the birthplace of the concept of zero, the decimal system, algebra, trigonometry and geometry . India also invented the place value system, the binary system, the Fibonacci sequence and the concept of infinity.
- Architecture: India has a long tradition of urban planning, engineering and artistic design. India is home to some of the oldest and most magnificent monuments, temples, palaces, forts and mosques in the world, such as the Taj Mahal, the Qutub Minar, the Khajuraho temples, the Ajanta and Ellora caves, the Hampi ruins and the Konark Sun Temple . India also influenced the architecture of other regions, such as Southeast Asia, Central Asia, China and Japan.
- Textiles: India is one of the largest producers and exporters of cotton, silk, wool and other fabrics in the world. India invented the technique of spinning, weaving, dyeing and printing of textiles, and introduced them to other countries through trade and cultural exchange . India also invented the chintz, the muslin, the calico, the khadi and the paisley patterns, which are popular worldwide.
- Medicine: India has a rich tradition of medicine, dating back to the ancient times. India developed the system of Ayurveda, which is one of the oldest forms of holistic medicine, based on the balance of the body, mind and spirit . India also pioneered the fields of surgery, dentistry, ophthalmology, pharmacology and anatomy, and performed the first plastic surgery, cataract surgery, rhinoplasty and caesarean section .
- Language: India is a multilingual nation, with 22 official languages and hundreds of regional languages and dialects. India is the source of many languages that belong to the Indo-European and Dravidian families, such as Sanskrit, Hindi, Bengali, Tamil, Telugu and Malayalam . India also influenced the development of other languages, such as Persian, Arabic, English, French, German and Spanish, through the introduction of words, grammar, literature and scripts .
- Art: India has a diverse and vibrant culture of art, encompassing various

forms of painting, sculpture, literature, music, dance and theatre. India has produced some of the finest masterpieces of art, such as the paintings of Ajanta, the sculptures of Khajuraho, the epics of Ramayana and Mahabharata, the poetry of Kalidasa and Rabindranath Tagore, the music of Ravi Shankar and A.R. Rahman, the dance of Bharatanatyam and Kathak, and the theatre of Natya Shastra and Rasa theory . India also influenced the art of other regions, such as Southeast Asia, Central Asia, China, Japan and Europe, through the spread of Buddhism, Hinduism, Islam and Sikhism .

- Religion: India is the birthplace of four major religions of the world: Hinduism, Buddhism, Jainism and Sikhism. India also has a significant population of followers of other religions, such as Islam, Christianity, Zoroastrianism, Judaism and Baha'i. India is a land of religious tolerance, diversity and harmony, where different faiths coexist and interact peacefully. India also contributed to the spiritual and philosophical development of the world, through the concepts of karma, dharma, reincarnation, nirvana, yoga, meditation, non-violence, vegetarianism and pluralism .

Indian Cinema as a Performing Art in India

- Indian cinema is a form of performing art that combines storytelling, acting, music, dance, and visual effects to create a powerful medium of expression and entertainment.
- Indian cinema has a rich and diverse history that spans over a century, from the silent era to the present day, reflecting the social, cultural, and political changes in the country.
- Indian cinema is influenced by various traditions of Indian performing arts, such as theater, folk, classical, and modern dance, music, and literature, as well as by foreign influences, such as Hollywood, European, and Asian cinema.
- Indian cinema is also a source of inspiration and influence for other forms of performing arts, such as theater, music, and television, as many artists and personalities have emerged from the film industry.
- Indian cinema can be studied as a performing art from various perspectives, such as the following:
 - The Natyasastra and the Rasa Theory: The Natyasastra is an ancient treatise on dramaturgy and aesthetics, written by Bharata Muni, that lays down the principles and techniques of theater and dance. The Rasa Theory is a key concept of the Natyasastra, which states that the aim of performing arts is to evoke the nine basic emotions (rasas) in the audience, such as love, anger, fear, joy, etc. The Rasa Theory has been applied to Indian cinema by various scholars and filmmakers,

who have analyzed the use of music, dialogue, gestures, costumes, and cinematography to create the desired emotional effects.

- The Indian People’s Theatre Association (IPTA) and the Social Realism: The IPTA was a progressive cultural movement that emerged in the 1940s, in the context of the Indian independence struggle and the social and economic problems of the masses. The IPTA aimed to use theater and other performing arts as a medium of social awareness and change, by depicting the realities and struggles of the oppressed classes, such as the peasants, workers, women, and minorities. The IPTA also influenced the Indian cinema, as many of its members became filmmakers, actors, writers, and composers, who made films that addressed the issues of poverty, inequality, communalism, corruption, and nationalism.
- The Parallel Cinema and the Art Cinema: The Parallel Cinema was a movement of alternative and experimental films that emerged in the 1950s and 1960s, in contrast to the mainstream commercial cinema, which was dominated by formulaic and escapist genres, such as romance, action, and comedy. The Parallel Cinema aimed to explore the artistic and aesthetic aspects of cinema, by using realistic, complex, and nuanced narratives, characters, and themes, that reflected the social, political, and cultural realities of the contemporary India. The Parallel Cinema also influenced the Art Cinema, which was a term used to describe the films that were made with artistic and creative intentions, rather than commercial and entertainment purposes, and that received critical acclaim and recognition at national and international film festivals.